

Political Science — Master Notes

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One running document for the whole course, organised by **Part → Lecture → readings**. Format per reading: **Résumé → ★ Heart of it → Key concepts → Section-by-section → Cases → Key terms → Exam pointers**.

Overview — where everything is

(Everything below is clickable — jump straight to a lecture, reading, case, or fun-facts box.)

Part I • Political Systems & Institutions

- [Lecture 1: Introduction — Power, Politics & Political Science \(MDJ\)](#) — [OD Ch. 1: Introduction](#) • [Ansell Ch. 1 • the chain, worked](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 2: The State \(AUW\)](#) — [OD Ch. 2: The Modern State](#) • [OD Ch. 4: States & Identity](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 3: Political Regimes \(FK\)](#) — [OD Ch. 3: States, Citizens & Regimes](#) • [regime taxonomy](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 4: Systems of Government](#) — [OD Ch. 5: Governing Institutions](#) • [parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 5: Participation and Representation \(FK\)](#) — [OD Ch. 6: Participation & Representation](#) • [what is representation? \(Pitkin\)](#) • [electoral systems compared](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)
- [Lecture 6: Institutions and Institutionalisms \(AUW\)](#) — [Hall & Taylor: the 3 institutionalisms](#) • [RCI / HI / SI compared](#) • [Busemeyer & Thelen \(HI example\)](#) • ★ [Fun facts](#)

(All lectures so far fall under **Part I**. New lectures go under Part I until the syllabus introduces a new Part.)

PART I • POLITICAL SYSTEMS & INSTITUTIONS

Lecture 1: Introduction — Power, Politics, and Political Science (MDJ)

Required reading: OD ch. 1 • Ansell (2023) ch. 1

Core theme: *What is politics, and how do we study it?* Two complementary lenses — OD gives you the **discipline's toolkit** (what [comparative politics](#) is + the main theory families), Ansell gives you a **single analytical engine** ([political economy](#): [self-interest](#) → [collective-action problems](#) → the need for political "promises").

OD Ch. 1 — Introduction

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics: Concepts and Cases in Context*, 5th ed. (CQ Press/SAGE, 2021)

Chapter résumé

The opening chapter defines the field and hands you the analytical vocabulary used for the rest of the book. It answers three "meta" questions — *what* comparative politics is, *why* to study it, and *how* comparativists do research — and then lays out the **three key questions** that organize the whole discipline: **What explains political behavior? Who rules? Where and why?** Most of the chapter is a guided tour of the competing **theory families** used to answer the first two questions. It closes with the book's plan (three parts) and its method of teaching through **eleven recurring country case studies**.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** the whole field collapses into **three questions** — *what explains behaviour?* · *who rules?* · *where & why?* — answered with the **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** and **Pluralist / Elite** frameworks, all read through **Lukes' three dimensions of power**. Master those and you can attack any comparative-politics question.

Key concepts / "modes" to use

These are the analytical toolkits you're expected to *apply* to cases later:

- **Three dimensions of power** (Lukes) — the lens for spotting *where* power operates.
- **Empirical vs. normative theory** — always separate "what is" from "what *ought to be*."
- **Research methods** — single-case study · comparative method (most-similar / most-different systems) · quantitative statistics.
- **Explaining behavior** → **3 families:** Interests · Beliefs · Structures.
- **Who rules** → **2 families:** Pluralist vs. Elite theory.

Section-by-section main points

Comparative Politics: What Is It? / How to Study It?

What is politics? (expanded with the lecture — MDJ)

- **OD's definition:** politics = "*the process by which human communities make collective decisions*" (any scale, village → international body). This is a **procedural** definition — it's about *how* decisions get made, not their content. Four implications:
 - **Group, not private, decisions** — it concerns the group.
 - **The whole community** — decisions normally bind everyone.
 - **The process** — focus is on the decision-making *process*.
 - **≠ polity / policy** — distinguish **politics** (the process) from **polity** (the rules/institutions) and **policy** (the outcomes).
- Also: the process applies **across regime types**, needn't involve **large groups**, and is **not necessarily inclusive** (decisions are often made by small, unelected groups).
- **The distributional definitions** (what OD's definition leaves out — *the distribution of resources*):

- **Lasswell (1936)**: politics = "*who gets what, when, how.*"
- **Easton (1953)**: politics = "*the authoritative allocation of values for a society.*"
- → politics as a **distributional game**: the capacity to distribute **material and non-material resources** (who wins, who loses).
- Two key **assumptions** behind this view: ① **scarcity** of resources (no scarcity → no distributional battle) and ② **preference heterogeneity** (people want different, often conflicting, things).
- **Comparative politics** = the subfield comparing power & decision-making *within* countries (contrast: **international relations** studies *between/beyond* states).
- **Power — the three faces / dimensions**. *This is the chapter's master concept — it recurs as the lens for every theory later, so know it cold.* The lecture runs **one example** (a parliamentary **tax increase**) through all three so the differences are clear:

Face	Who (attribution)	Core idea	The tax example	Power =
1st · Decision-making	Dahl (1957)	A gets B to do something B would not otherwise do — observable conflict & decisions	A majority in Parliament passes the tax increase despite strong opposition	winning an observable decision
2nd · Agenda-setting	Bachrach & Baratz (1962)	Power through non-decision-making — keeping threatening issues off the agenda via rules/values	Powerful actors keep the tax increase off Parliament's agenda, so no debate or vote ever happens	controlling what gets decided
3rd · Ideological	Lukes (1974)	Shaping people's wants, perceptions & preferences — even with <i>no observable conflict</i>	People come to see taxing the wealthy as harmful/illegitimate, so the demand never even arises	shaping wants & preferences

- **The difference in one line**: the 1st face is about *winning* a visible fight; the 2nd is about *stopping the fight from happening*; the 3rd is about *making sure no one wants to fight in the first place*. Power gets **less visible** as you go down.
- **Why it's central — the recurring pay-off**: each later theory is graded by *which dimension it can see*. Rational choice & pluralists see essentially only the **1st**; rational-choice institutionalists add the **2nd**; psychological theories, postmodern discourse, historical institutionalism and elite theory reach into the **2nd & 3rd**. Being able to say "this theory only captures the first dimension" is a core analytical move.
- **Worked example of the move (straight from the book)**: *Rational choice* accepts people's preferences as **given** and only asks how they rationally pursue them — so it lives purely in the **1st dimension**, ignoring how preferences are *formed*. That is exactly why it "can't explain preferences in advance" and stumbles on the cross-national union puzzle (why French unions went communist while US unions chased only wages): it has no way to see the **3rd-dimensional** forces that *shaped* those preferences. **Psychological theories** and **historical institutionalists**, which do reach the 3rd dimension, are what step in to explain it. → *This is the template: name the theory, name the dimension(s) it can't see, then name a rival theory that reaches further.*

Why Study Comparative Politics? — three benefits

1. Understand political events in specific countries (and inform foreign policy).

2. Draw **lessons** transferable from one place to another (e.g. presidential systems may worsen post-civil-war conflict — invisible if you only study the US).
3. Build **broad theories** of how politics works.

How Do Comparativists Study Politics? — methods

- No lab: political actors *react* to being studied, so no perfect control.
- **Empirical theory** = explains what *does* occur (describe pattern → explain cause → predict). **Normative theory** = what *ought* to occur. The discipline is mostly empirical, but normative concerns shape which questions get asked (and that's legitimate).
- **Three research methods:**
 - **Single-case study** — deep dive into one case; generates/tests theory; *process tracing* links causes→effects; **deviant cases** expose theory limits. Never definitive beyond itself.
 - **Comparative method** — mimic the lab via careful case selection:
 - **Most-similar systems** — cases alike in many ways, differ on the key variable.
 - **Most-different systems** — cases differing in many ways but sharing the outcome (e.g. revolutions: France, Russia, China, Iran...).
 - **Quantitative statistical techniques** — reduce evidence to numbers, compare hundreds of cases (e.g. the civil-war & diamonds study: civil war driven more by *lootable resources* than ethnicity).
- **Scientific-method vocabulary:** theory · hypothesis · variable · **dependent** vs **independent** variable · **control**.
- Best modern scholarship *combines* methods (quant for patterns + case studies for causal depth).

Three Key Questions in Comparative Politics

1. **What explains political behavior?** (core of all political science)
2. **Who rules?**
3. **Where and why?** (comparativists' distinctive contribution — the same explanation across different times/places?)

Q1 — What Explains Political Behavior? → three answer-families

The chapter's (and the exam's) core. Each family splits into competing theories — below, each with its **core idea**, its **critique**, and which **face of power** it "sees." Learn the theory names + one line each.

- ① **Interests — behaviour** = actors pursuing their own preferences

Theory	Core idea	Critique	Sees face
Rational choice	Rational individuals pursue self-defined preferences instrumentally (borrowed from economics; starts at the individual).	Can't know preferences in advance → weak predictive power; struggles with cross-country variation. Group-behaviour critics: Achen & Bartels .	1st
Psychological	Non-rational factors — personal experience, emotions , personality — shape behaviour (Petersen on fear; Hetherington & Weiler on personality).	Its focus on the individual makes group behaviour hard to explain.	3rd

② Beliefs — behaviour = values & ideas

Theory	Core idea	Critique	Sees face
Political culture	Shared attitudes, values, symbols shape behaviour. <i>Modernist</i> : clear, identifiable civic values (Almond & Verba's civic culture ; postmaterialist shift, Inglehart). <i>Postmodernist</i> : culture = symbols open to interpretation in discourse (Foucault).	Do countries really have <i>one</i> culture? Culture may be an effect , not a cause; postmodernism accused of explaining nothing.	2nd–3rd
Political ideology	A systematic, conscious belief-set guides action (liberalism, communism, fascism).	May just justify actions really driven by <u>self-interest</u> or culture.	3rd

③ Structures — behaviour = shaped & limited by broad structures

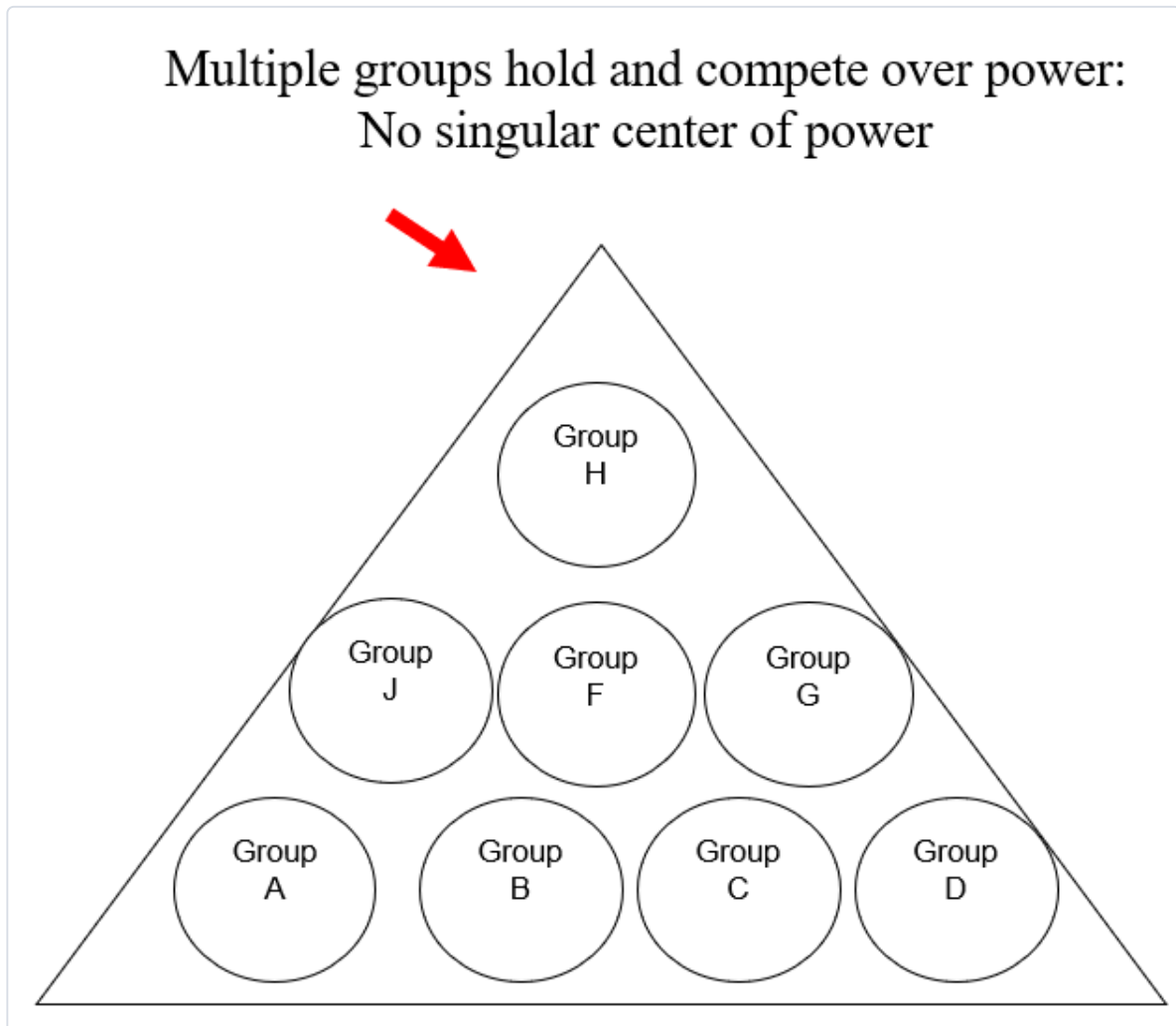
Theory	Core idea	Critique	Sees face
Marxism	Behaviour explained by class conflict rooted in the economic system (bourgeoisie vs proletariat — Marx).	Overlooks non-economic motives (religion, nationalism) and other sources of power.	2nd–3rd
Institutionalism	Institutions — the "rules of the game" — shape behaviour (<i>rational-choice institutionalist</i> , Weingast ; <i>historical institutionalist</i> , Haggard & Kaufman ; e.g. the <u>US two-term tradition</u>).	Institutions may reflect <u>self-interest</u> or culture rather than <i>cause</i> behaviour.	2nd (RC) / all 3 (historical)

Q2 — Who Rules? → two answer-families

- **Pluralist theories** (classic statement: **Robert Dahl**, *Who Governs?* 1961) — society = many competing groups; power *dispersed*; no group wins permanently; policy = compromise. (Thinks mostly in the **1st dimension** of power.) Claims to apply even to authoritarian states (Soviet factions; African patron–client networks).
- **Elite theories** — every society ruled by a small elite controlling ~all power (uses **2nd & 3rd dimensions**). Variants:
 - **Marxism** — ruling class = owners of the economy (bourgeoisie); state = "executive committee of the bourgeoisie."
 - **Power elite** (C. Wright Mills) — interlocking economic + political + military elites.

- **Oligarchy** (Winters) — extreme wealth as power, used to protect wealth.
- **Patriarchy** (feminist) — rule by men; politics/military tied to masculinity.
- **Racial elite** / "new Jim Crow" (Alexander) — one race maintains dominance via law, wealth, discourse.
- **Test for who rules:** Who holds formal power? Who influences decisions? Who benefits? → few = elite; many = pluralist.

Visualising it (from the lecture):



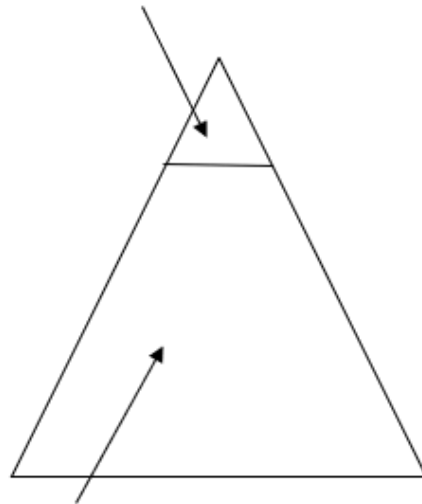
- Multiple groups, but few (elites) hold power

Elite:

Government,
corporations.

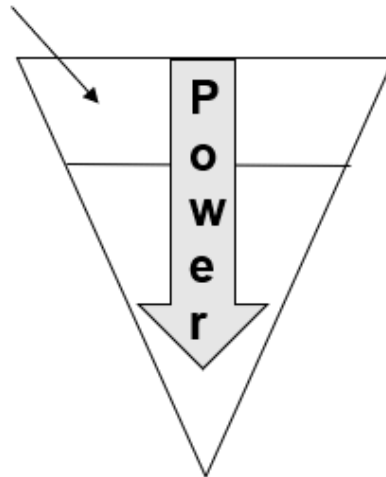
Elite power:

- Disproportional to size
- Governs society



**Society: Public,
organisations**

- Largest group(s)
with little power



How to read them. *Pluralist* (first diagram): power is **dispersed** among many competing groups — *no single centre*. *Elitist* (second): a **small elite** (government, corporations) sits at the top and holds power **disproportionate to its size**, while the **largest group** — **the public/society** — **has little power**; the inverted triangle shows **power flowing down** onto them. Same society, opposite claim about where power really sits.

Q3 — Where and Why?

- Add the **comparative dimension** to Q1 & Q2: why do welfare states differ (see the [Sweden vs US welfare state case](#))? Explanations compete — rational choice / ideology / institutions. Comparison across cases reveals patterns a single case hides.

Plan of the Book

- **Part I** — the state (what it is, strong/weak; state–citizen–regime; state–identity).
- **Part II** — how political systems work (democratic & authoritarian institutions; participation; regime change).
- **Part III** — [political economy & policy](#).
- **11 recurring country cases**: 4 wealthy democracies (Britain, Germany, Japan, US); 2 post-communist (China, Russia); largest enduring democracy (India); the one theocracy (Iran); 3 post-authoritarian democracies (Brazil, Mexico, Nigeria).

Cases & examples

The concrete cases the chapter uses. Each one: *what actually happened* → *what it illustrates*.

- **Tunisia vs Syria (2011)**. Both were swept up in the Arab Spring protests, yet the outcomes split completely: Tunisia negotiated a relatively **peaceful transition to democracy**, while Syria collapsed into a long, brutal **civil war**. → *Illustrates*: why comparison matters — understanding a country's internal dynamics has real foreign-policy stakes; it also undercuts the lazy claim that "Arab/Islamic culture" is uniformly anti-democratic (same culture-family, opposite results).
- **Post-civil-war presidentialism**. Americans treat their directly-elected presidency as *the* stable model. But in a country just out of civil war it's **winner-take-all**: only one side's candidate can win the top job, so the losers may prefer to **restart the war** than live with the result. A **power-sharing** system that gives every major group a slice of national power tends to be safer. → *Illustrates*: a lesson you simply cannot see by studying the US alone — the payoff of comparison.
- **Civil war & diamonds** (Collier & Hoeffler; **Sierra Leone**). A large **quantitative** study of hundreds of civil wars found that **ethnic division is not the main cause** people assume. War is far more likely where a group can seize a **valuable, lootable resource** — like the diamonds fuelling Sierra Leone's 1990s war. Where there's no such prize, ethnic division rarely turns violent. → *Illustrates*: the quantitative method + a genuinely counter-intuitive finding.
- **Ukraine 2014** — "is it a civil war?" When fighting erupted in 2014 (with a Russian military presence backing one side), scholars couldn't cleanly classify it: *how much* violence, for *how long*, before it "counts" as a civil war? → *Illustrates*: the hard first step of any scientific study — **defining and measuring your variables** precisely.
- **Almond & Verba, *The Civic Culture* (1963)**. They surveyed citizens across five countries and argued that stable democracies (US, UK) share a "**civic culture**" — people participate *and* defer enough to let leaders govern — whereas **Mexico** had a "**subject**" culture (citizens saw themselves as subjects, not participants), fitting its authoritarian rule until 2000. → *Illustrates*: the classic **modernist** political-culture claim — and the standard critique that culture may be an *effect* of institutions, not their cause.
- **US Catholics shifting Democrat → Republican**. Mid-20th-c. working-class Catholics voted **Democrat** on economic interest. As they grew affluent, they came to prioritise **moral/cultural** issues (e.g. abortion) and drifted **Republican**. → *Illustrates*: **postmaterialism** (Inglehart) — political culture changing over time and reshaping party alignments.
- **"Family values" (Reagan vs Clinton)**. No US politician dares oppose "family values," yet the phrase has **no fixed meaning**: Reagan's Republicans used it to claim the traditional middle-class family; Clinton's Democrats **reinterpreted** it to mean single mothers and two-income families needing afterschool programmes. → *Illustrates*: the **postmodernist** point — political symbols are contested and redefined through **discourse** (a play for the 3rd dimension of power).
- **Unions: France / US / UK**. Same institution, three preference-sets: **French** unions tied themselves to the **Communist Party** and pursued broad ideological goals; **US** unions stayed "bread-and-butter" (wages & conditions), shunning socialist parties; **British** unions built their own **Labour Party**. → *Illustrates*: the puzzle for **rational choice** — it takes preferences as given, so it can't explain *why* they differ so sharply across countries (this is the worked example above).
- **US two-term tradition** (Washington → FDR). Washington voluntarily stepped down after two terms; **no president broke the norm for 150+ years** until FDR won a third term in **1940** — after which it was written into the Constitution (22nd Amendment). → *Illustrates*: an **informal institution** that shaped behaviour purely because leaders and citizens believed it *should*.

- **Chile's democratic transition (1990s)**. One of the most successful exits from military rule — explained three different ways: **rational-choice institutionalists** (elites cut a strategic constitutional bargain that served their interests), **political-culture** theorists (Chilean values favoured democracy), **historical institutionalists** (Chile could revive its earlier stable democratic institutions, a legacy neighbours lacked). → *Illustrates*: how the **same event** gets three competing explanations — and the analyst's job is to weigh them.
- **Sweden vs US welfare state**. Sweden runs a large, expensive welfare state; the US spends far less. Why do two rich democracies diverge? **Interests**: strong labour won in Sweden, business overpowered labour in the US. **Beliefs**: Sweden's dominant Socialists spread social-democratic ideology; US "make it on your own" culture rejects socialism. **Institutions**: Sweden's unified labour body (LO) became central to policymaking; US unions stayed decentralised and weak. → *Illustrates*: the lead "**Where and why?**" puzzle, with one answer from each theory family.
- **US corporate power / oligarchy** (Winters). Is the US genuinely democratic if a **corporate elite** holds outsized power? Winters argues extreme wealth ("material power") lets **oligarchs** hire lawyers and lobbyists to shield their income from redistribution. → *Illustrates*: a "**Who rules?**" case pitting elite theory against pluralism.

The 11 recurring countries (used across the whole book): Britain, Germany, Japan, USA (wealthy democracies) • China, Russia (post-communist) • India (largest democracy) • Iran (theocracy) • Brazil, Mexico, Nigeria (post-authoritarian).

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Politics	Process by which communities make collective decisions (procedural; group, whole community, ≠ polity/policy)
Polity / Policy	The rules & institutions / the outcomes (vs <i>politics</i> = the process)
Distributional game	Politics as allocating resources — "who gets what" (Lasswell; Easton)
Scarcity / Preference heterogeneity	The two assumptions behind the distributional view of politics
Comparative politics	Subfield comparing power/decision-making across countries
Three faces of power	(1) decision-making, Dahl; (2) agenda-setting, Bachrach & Baratz; (3) ideological, Lukes
Empirical / Normative theory	Explains what <i>does</i> / what <i>ought to</i> occur
Single-case study	Deep study of one case (uses process tracing)
Comparative method	Careful case selection: most-similar vs most-different systems
Rational choice theory	Actors rationally pursue self-defined preferences
Political culture	Widely held attitudes/values/symbols about politics
Civic culture	Culture supporting stable democracy (Almond & Verba)
Political ideology	Conscious systematic belief-set about how politics <i>ought to be</i>
Institutionalism	Institutions ("rules of the game") explain behavior
Pluralist theory	Power dispersed among competing groups
Elite theory	A small elite controls virtually all power
Patriarchy	Rule by men

Exam pointers

- Be able to **apply the 3 dimensions of power** to an example, and say which theory family "sees" which dimension.
- Know the **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** trichotomy for Q1 and **Pluralist vs Elite** for Q2 — with one named theorist per box (the names are in the two tables above: e.g. Interests → *Achen & Bartels / Petersen*; Beliefs → *Almond & Verba, Inglehart, Foucault*; Structures → *Marx, Weingast*; Pluralist → *Dahl*; Elite → *Mills, Winters, Alexander*).
- Distinguish **most-similar vs most-different** systems designs with an example.
- Always flag **empirical vs normative** when a question mixes them.

Ansell — *Why Politics Fails*, Ch. 1

Book: Ben Ansell (2023), *Why Politics Fails: The Five Traps of the Modern World – and How to Escape Them*, Penguin.

Note: the provided PDF is titled "Introduction: Simple Problems, Impossible Politics" — this is the framing chapter the syllabus lists as "chapter 1." It sets up the whole book.

Chapter résumé

Ansell argues that our biggest challenges (climate change is the opening example) are often "**simple problems with impossible politics**": we understand the solution but can't get people to act. The reason is **political economy** — individuals are **self-interested**, and **self-interest** predictably collides with the collective good, producing **collective-action problems**. He introduces the **five goals** we broadly agree on — **Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity** — each of which is also a **trap**. Politics is fundamentally about making **collective promises** to each other; but promises can't be externally enforced, so they only work when made **self-enforcing** through **institutions** and **norms**. The book's project: learn to spot the five traps and escape them.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** one chain explains why politics fails — **self-interest** → **collective-action problem** → **tragedy of the commons** → **the need for self-enforcing political promises (institutions & norms)**. If you learn one thing here, learn to run that chain.

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Political economy** — model individuals as self-interested utility-maximizers, then scale up to society.
- **Self-interest** → **preferences** → **constraints** → **trade-offs** — the micro engine.
- **Collective-action problem** — self-interested individuals undermine a shared goal.
- **Tragedy of the commons & externalities** (negative/positive) — the recurring failure shapes.
- **Politics as promises** — collective, unenforceable, needing **self-enforcing** design.
- **Institutions** (formal rules) & **norms** (informal expectations) — what makes promises stick.
- **The Five Traps:** Democracy · Equality · Solidarity · Security · Prosperity.

Section-by-section main points

Opening — Simple Problems, Impossible Politics

- Climate change: science is a century old and well understood; the road from emissions → warming is *simple*. The hard part is getting anyone to act — a **global problem with domestic politics**. No world government to enforce, so everyone free-rides.
- International attempts show politics *can* work (Paris 2015) or fail (Kyoto, Copenhagen) — success came from flexibility, vague wording, deferral.
- Climate tests all **five** goals: democracy (global consensus?), equality (should richer pay more?), solidarity (do rich nations owe poor?), security (climate refugees, enforcement?), prosperity (short-term gain vs long-term survival).

Common ground

- **Politics** = how we make collective decisions / make promises to each other in an uncertain world. Essential for solving shared dilemmas.

- **Double-edged sword:** we need politics but hate it; we look for alternatives (markets, technology, strong leaders) but these are "**false gods**" — they still run into human disagreement.
- Disagreement is **inevitable** (elections have losers; spending is unequal; who guards the guards?). Push politics down in one place, it pops up elsewhere ("paste in the toothpaste tube").
- Despite polarization, most people **agree on five things** — which are also five **traps**.

| The five goals (each a trap)

- **Democracy** — right/ability of the mass public to choose and replace leaders. $\sim\frac{1}{2}$ the world lives in democracies; broadly popular (86% in World Values Survey favor it) but under pressure (the "third wave" stalled; populism, referendums, attacks on media/expertise).
- **Equality** — everyone treated the same; but debate over *outcomes* vs *opportunities* and redistribution. Wide consensus that income gaps are too large (2019: only 7% disagreed), yet inequality has *risen* in rich countries since the 1980s → populist backlash ("inequality paradox").
- **Solidarity** — support for fellow citizens in hard times (illness, bad luck). Underpins popular "third-rail" policies (US Social Security, UK NHS). COVID-19 showed global health interdependence.
- **Security** — the most basic desire: to be safe. 70% prefer security over freedom (highest where war is recent). Concerns: violence *within* states, police violence ("who guards us from our protectors?"), return of interstate war (Ukraine).
- **Prosperity** — enough money to live/grow; but endless growth warms the planet → trade-off between prosperity and environmental survival.

| Political economy (the method)

- The school of thought taking seriously how individual and society interact: start with a **model of each of us** (what we want + how we plan to get it), then pan out to society and watch **best-laid plans undermined by... us**.
- **Basic model:** everyone is **self-interested** — has ordered **preferences** and tries to **maximize utility** (pick the highest-value option). Not an ethical claim — a *predictive analytical tool*.
- **Methodological individualism:** start from individuals, not classes/cultures/groups.
- **Constraints & trade-offs:** you can't have everything (physical, institutional, social limits) → every choice sacrifices an alternative (coffee vs tea; lower taxes vs social liberalism at the ballot box).
- Even **voting** is a puzzle: your single vote is unlikely to be decisive, so turnout must be partly explained by a sense of **duty**. Politicians too are self-interested (must win elections → campaign arms race).
- Studying self-interest is **liberating**, not cynical: even apparently selfless behavior often has a self-interested logic (e.g. the rich opposing public-education spending that "devalues" their kids' advantage).

| Collective-action problems

- When self-interested individuals interact, they can inadvertently wreck a shared goal.
- **Example — the Cod Wars** (Britain vs Iceland, 1950s–70s): overfishing a shared resource.
- **Tragedy of the commons:** without ownership, everyone fishes freely → stocks collapse; my self-interest hurts yours.
- **Externalities:** a market action's effect on a third party — mostly **negative** (pollution, congestion), sometimes **positive** (a neighbor's rose garden). Political life is "full of externalities."

- Root cause: we are **interdependent** — my choice affects your options — and we can't commit others (or ourselves) to "do the right thing." *The making of a tragedy*.

Politics as a promise

- We're *smart*: we anticipate what others will do — which is exactly why collective-action problems arise (can't blame "stupidity").
- Politics = making **collective promises** (politicians→voters, allies→adversaries). A **promise** ≠ a **contract**: it **can't be legally enforced by a third party** — there's *no higher power than politics itself*.
- So political promises are **fragile and temporary**; they succeed only when **self-enforcing** — designed so that reneging is hard.
- Two tools to grant promises permanence:
 - **Institutions** — formal rules/organizations that lock in expectations (e.g. the **US Senate filibuster**: powerful, flawed, over-represents small states, hard to remove safely — shows institutions structure behavior even when dysfunctional).
 - **Norms** — informal expectations about how we should behave; invisible but powerful, vaguer and harder to enforce than rules; not every leader can invoke them.
- Because institutions & norms vary, **politics plays out differently around the world** (e.g. Nordic high-trust, inclusive systems are hard to transplant).

The traps (close)

- Each of the five goals faces a **trap triggered by self-interest** that blocks the collective goal. Traps aren't destiny — but they're **insidious, pervasive, even enticing**.
- Two options: spot the traps "in the wild" and step around them, or — if already caught — learn to **escape**. *Only by understanding why politics fails can we make it succeed*.

The chain, run once (worked). This is the single argument the whole chapter builds — here it is end-to-end on the Cod Wars:

1. **Self-interest**. Every fisherman, British and Icelandic, tries to maximise his *own* catch (the political-economy starting model).
2. → **Collective-action problem**. They're **interdependent** — fishing the *same* sea — so each one acting on self-interest undermines the shared goal (a sustainable stock). Individually rational, collectively ruinous.
3. → **Tragedy of the commons / externality**. The sea is **unowned and hard to monitor**, so no one can be excluded → everyone overfishes → the stock collapses (**tragedy of the commons**). Put the other way: my extra catch imposes a cost on you — a **negative externality**.
4. → **Need for political promises**. We'd all be better off with a binding catch limit, but there's **no world government** to enforce one — so the *states* must make **political promises** to each other on behalf of their fishermen.
5. → **Institutions & norms**. A promise can't be enforced by any third party, so it only holds if it's **self-enforcing** — locked in by **institutions** (formal rules: recognised fishing limits/zones) and **norms** (informal expectations). When Iceland kept *extending* its limits, the promise broke and new ones were needed — *"politics never ends"*.

Reusable template (works on any trap): name the self-interest → show the **interdependence** that makes it a collective-action problem → identify the commons/externality failure → state the **promise** that would fix it → name the **institution/norm** that could make the promise stick.

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Political economy	Study of how self-interested individuals and society interact
Self-interest	Model assumption: people pursue their own ordered preferences
Utility maximization	Choosing the option that yields the highest personal value
Constraint / trade-off	Limits force sacrifice of one option for another
Collective-action problem	Self-interested individuals undermine a shared goal
Tragedy of the commons	Unowned shared resource gets over-exploited
Externality	Effect of a transaction on a third party (negative/positive)
Politics-as-promise	Collective promises that no third party can enforce
Self-enforcing	Arrangement where reneging is made costly/hard
Institution	Formal rule/organization locking in expectations (e.g. filibuster)
Norm	Informal expectation about proper behavior
The Five Traps	Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity

Exam pointers

- Memorize the **five goals/traps** (Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity) — the spine of the whole book.
- Be able to **run the chain**: self-interest → collective-action problem → tragedy of the commons/externalities → need for political promises → institutions & norms (*worked end-to-end above*).
- Use the **Cod Wars** / **tragedy of the commons** as your go-to worked example.
- Key distinction: a **promise** (unenforceable, needs to be self-enforcing) vs a **contract** (third-party enforced).

Bridge to OD

Both readings converge on **institutions** and on modelling actors via **interests/self-interest** (OD's "Interests" family = Ansell's political-economy engine). Ansell's "politics = collective decisions" is almost verbatim OD's definition of **politics**. Good to cite them together on *why institutions matter*.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

The sticky examples, surprising stats and quotable lines from this module — the stuff worth dropping into an essay or exam answer.

Memorable examples (great to cite)

- **The Cod Wars** (Britain vs Iceland, 1950s–70s): two NATO allies clashing over cod — boats rammed, one accidental death by electrocution, and Icelandic coastguards fitting **wire-cutters** to slash British trawler

nets. A perfect little tragedy-of-the-commons story. (Ansell)

- **Civil war & diamonds:** statistical research (Collier & Hoeffler) found civil wars are driven more by control of **lootable resources** — diamonds, e.g. Sierra Leone — than by ethnic division. (OD)
- **The "new Jim Crow"** (Michelle Alexander): mass incarceration reframed as a modern system of racial control. (OD)
- **George Washington's two-term tradition:** an *informal* institution that held for 150+ years until FDR broke it in 1940 — then it was locked into the Constitution. (OD)
- **"Family values"** as a contested symbol — Reagan's Republicans and Clinton's Democrats each reinterpreted it (the postmodernist point about discourse). (OD)

Surprising stats

- **86%** worldwide (World Values Survey) say democracy is a good way to run a country — and in **China, Ethiopia, Iran & Tajikistan over 90%** agree with pro-democracy statements, *more* than in the US. (Ansell)
- **~70%** say they'd prefer **security over freedom** — highest where war is recent. (Ansell)
- **~95%** across wealthy countries think government should provide healthcare — even **85% in the US**. (Ansell)
- **2016** was, by some counts, the **most violent year since WWII**. (Ansell)

Quotable lines

- Marx: the modern state is "*the executive committee of the whole bourgeoisie*." (OD)
- Keynes: "*In the long run we are all dead*." — on why forecasting fails. (Ansell)
- Ansell on the inescapability of politics: push it down in one place and it pops up in another, "*like the proverbial paste in the toothpaste tube*."
- The **NHS** as Britain's "*national religion*." (Ansell)

Trivia

- OD's example of why natural science can be "purer": South Korea's **Woo Suk Hwang faked stem-cell results** — but biologists don't get *normatively* attached to findings the way political scientists do.
- The CO₂-warming theory dates to **1861**, revived in a **1956 New York Times** piece imagining "tigers roaming... and squawking Arctic parrots." (Ansell)

Lecture 2: The State (AUW)

Required reading: OD ch. 2 (*The Modern State*) • OD ch. 4 (*States and Identity*)

Theme of the lecture: the **state** itself — first *what a modern state is* and why some are strong while others fail (ch. 2), then how **identity** (nation, ethnicity, race, class, religion, gender, sexuality) becomes the central challenge to the state and to the liberal ideal of equal citizenship (ch. 4). Ch. 2 gives you the **anatomy** of the state; ch. 4 shows the **fault lines** running through it.

Lecture frame (AUW — Ayça Uygur Wessel). The lecture hangs both chapters on **four questions** — use them as the skeleton:

1. **What is a state?** → the four characteristics (OD Ch. 2).
2. **Where did states come from?** → two pathways: **European (war-driven)** & **colonial**.
3. **Why are some states stronger than others?** → theories of **strength & weakness**.

4. Who does the state represent? → the **nation** / **identity** puzzle (OD Ch. 4).

State ≠ Nation ≠ Regime ≠ Government (*memorise the one-liners*):

- **State** — the *permanent administrative apparatus*.
- **Nation** — a *group of people with a shared sense of belonging*.
- **Regime** — the *fundamental rules* of the state (its type).
- **Government** — the *people who currently run* the state.

Two exam-style puzzles the lecture poses:

- *What comes first?* Is there a neat causal order **Territory** → **Sovereignty** → **Legitimacy** → **Bureaucracy**, or are the four **mutually reinforcing**? (Best answer: mostly mutually reinforcing — bureaucracy raises the tax that funds the army that defends the territory that grounds sovereignty...)
- **Greenland**: rate its characteristics — strong on **territory**, but weak external sovereignty (part of Denmark). Shows the characteristics come in **degrees**, not all-or-nothing.

OD Ch. 2 — The Modern State

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 2.

Chapter résumé

Defines the **modern state** — the foundational unit of comparative politics — and separates it from *country*, *nation*, *government*, and *regime*. It argues every modern state shares **four characteristics** (territory, external/internal sovereignty, legitimacy, bureaucracy) that make it an exceptionally powerful ruling apparatus. It traces the state's **historical origins** (first in Europe, 15th–18th c., then exported worldwide by colonialism, universal only by the 1960s) and explains why states vary in **strength** (the strong/weak/failed spectrum, political goods, the resource curse, quasi-states). ~Half the chapter is eleven country case studies ranked strongest→weakest — so weight your revision toward the cases.

★ **The heart of the chapter**: a modern state = **four characteristics** (territory • external + internal sovereignty • legitimacy • bureaucracy); *how fully a state has them* decides whether it is **strong, weak, or failed**. Use the four as a checklist on any case.

The red thread. One question runs through the whole chapter: **does an entity have the four characteristics — and how fully?** That single test defines what a state is (the characteristics), explains where states *came from* (building the four via war & colonialism), and grades why they *differ in strength* (strong = has all four; failed = has lost them). Every case is scored on the same four.

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **The four characteristics of the modern state** — the analytic backbone: **territory • external & internal sovereignty • legitimacy • bureaucracy**.
- **Sovereignty split**: *external* (recognised independence from outside powers) vs *internal* (sole law-making/enforcing authority inside) — they can come apart.
- **Weber's monopoly on the legitimate use of force** — the state claims to be the only body that may legitimately coerce.

- **Weber's three types of legitimacy** — traditional • charismatic • rational-legal.
- **Strong / weak / failed state** — a *continuum* measured by whether the state supplies political goods (security, rule of law, infrastructure).
- **Ideal type** — no real state matches the model perfectly; use it as a yardstick.

Section-by-section main points

What is a state? — state vs. the rest

Core: don't confuse the four — **state** (the apparatus) ≠ **government** (who runs it now) ≠ **regime** (the type of rules) ≠ **nation** (a people).

- A **state** = "an ongoing administrative apparatus that develops and administers laws and implements policies in a specific territory." **Government** = the transient occupants (US: "administrations"); **regime** = the *type* of government (liberal democracy, fascism — ch. 3); **nation** = a people with shared identity (ch. 4); **country** = too vague for analysis.

The four characteristics of a state (*heavily emphasised*)

Core: four features together make the state a uniquely powerful ruling apparatus — **the checklist you score every case on.**

- ① **Territory** — clearly defined borders; sizes range from Russia (6.5m sq mi) to micro-states under 200 sq mi. Borders still shift (Kosovo 2008, South Sudan 2011), usually to align state with nation.
- ② **External vs internal sovereignty** — *external* = recognised independence (counter-examples: colonies, Vichy France, Manchukuo — had territory/government but externally controlled); *internal* = sole authority to make/enforce law, defended against secession. A state needs *others to recognise it* (see the Somaliland case). Sovereignty ≠ omnipotence.
- ③ **Legitimacy** — the recognised right to rule; boosts sovereignty *far more cheaply than force*. **Weber's three types:** **traditional** (long-standing custom — divine right of kings), **charismatic** (personal virtue/heroism — early Mao), **rational-legal** (leaders chosen by accepted laws — elected under a constitution; Weber's marker of *modern* rule). In practice regimes **blend all three**. Collier: without legitimacy you get **repression, conflict, or "theater."**
- ④ **Bureaucracy** — appointed officials who implement law (collect tax, run the army, pave roads). Weak legitimacy + weak bureaucracy = the two key drivers of state weakness.

Where did states come from? — two pathways (*moderate*)

Core: the four characteristics were **built two ways** — Europe by *war & competition*, the rest by *colonial conquest* — and the route shapes later capacity.

① **European pathway** — "war made the state" (Charles Tilly). A causal flow driven by **military competition**:

Feudalism (overlapping authorities) → **absolute monarchies** (consolidate territory & sovereignty; "*L'état, c'est moi*" — state not yet separate from the ruler) → **war & political competition** (15th–18th-c. rulers were "war-lords/ladies") → **taxation + armies + administration** → **efficient bureaucracies** → **stronger territorial states.**

- **Tilly's four activities** (each reinforces the state — he likens the early state to a **protection racket**): **war-making** (neutralise external rivals) • **state-making** (neutralise internal rivals) • **protection** (neutralise clients' enemies) • **extraction** (raise the **tax** to fund the first three).
- **Brandenburg-Prussia** (*worked example*): surrounded by larger powers → needed armies → needed revenue (poor economy) → heavy **taxation in return for protection** → efficient bureaucracy → high **state capacity**. Prussia was strong **not because it always won**, but because it had to fight in a **very competitive environment**, which raised the incentive to build a strong state.
- Competition cut Europe from ~500 **sovereign entities in 1500** to ~50 today. The *truly* modern state arrives once it is seen as **separate from the ruler** and liberalism turns subjects into **citizens** (Glorious Revolution 1688; French Revolution 1789). (*Premodern states elsewhere ruled **people** more than precise territory — China's Confucian bureaucracy was closest to modern, ~1,800 years early.*)

② **Colonial pathway — statehood through conquest.** European powers **exported** borders, administrative structures and international recognition — but colonial borders **ignored existing political communities**. Result: **statehood ≠ state capacity** — postcolonial states inherited legal external sovereignty but **weak internal sovereignty**, imposed institutions and divided loyalties → mostly **very weak states** (universal statehood only by the 1960s). **Main take-away: the origins of statehood shape how capacity later develops.**

Why are some states stronger? — strong / weak / failed (*heavily emphasised*)

Core: strength = how many political goods the state actually delivers — a *continuum* (strong → weak → failed), not three boxes, and a state can be strong on one characteristic, weak on another.

- States supply political goods (Rotberg: security, rule of law, infrastructure). **Strong** = provides them generally; **weak** = only partially; **failed** = loses effective sovereignty over part/all territory (Syria, DRC, Afghanistan). Strength is a **continuum** and can move *both* ways (Fukuyama: even the US state has weakened).
- **Vicious cycle of weakness:** no resources → falling legitimacy → underpaid officials → corruption → worse services → citizens turn to mafias/private justice → the monopoly on force erodes further.
- **Why states differ — theories of strength (name + who):**
 - **Warfare** (Tilly) — external threats force state-building (Prussia).
 - **Colonial legacies** (Acemoglu, Johnson & Robinson) — externally imposed institutions shape later state capacity (Congo, Nigeria).
 - **Elite agreements** (North, Wallis & Weingast) — elites trade *private violence* for **impersonal institutions & the rule of law** (England).
 - (+ *Fukuyama's two paths: bureaucracy-first Prussia/Germany vs democracy-first US → machine politics.*)
- **Theories of weakness:**
 - **Resource curse** — resource dependence weakens **accountability** and breeds corruption (mineral revenue lets rulers ignore citizens; gives rebels a prize — *not* inevitable, cf. Norway).
 - **International system** — international **recognition** props up quasi-states that couldn't otherwise survive (post-1945 norm against conquest; Cold War patrons).
- Measured by the **Fragile States Index** (178 states, 12 factors — the chapter questions its equal weighting).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — circle them back to the theme. The chapter isn't telling eleven country stories for their own sake: each is a **worked example of the chapter's spine** — the **four characteristics**, the **strong**

→ **weak** → **failed** spectrum, and the **different bases of legitimacy** (Weber's three types). Read *every* case for three things: (1) **how strong, and why** · (2) **its basis of legitimacy** · (3) **any sovereignty problem**. The table maps each case to the concept it best demonstrates; the write-ups below give the story, and each closing → **line** states the tie back to the theme.

Case	Strength	Basis of legitimacy	Best demonstrates (chapter concept)
<u>Germany</u>	Strongest	shifting → <u>liberal democracy</u>	Fukuyama's bureaucracy-first path; first welfare state
<u>Japan</u>	Strong	democracy (emperor symbolic)	defensive modernisation
<u>UK</u>	Strong	traditional → rational-legal	slow evolution ; sovereignty is reversible (Brexit)
<u>USA</u>	Strong	rational-legal (written constitution)	Fukuyama's democracy-first path; state built by design
<u>Mexico</u>	Moderate	<u>liberal democracy</u> (post-PRI)	loss of the monopoly on force
<u>China</u>	Moderate	economic performance	legitimacy without democracy
<u>Brazil</u>	Moderate	cycled through all types	legitimacy can rest on many bases
<u>India</u>	Moderate–weak	<u>liberal democracy</u>	democracy surviving in a weak state
<u>Russia</u>	Weak	nationalism	external strength ≠ internal rule of law
<u>Iran</u>	Weak	theocracy	theocratic legitimacy
<u>Nigeria</u>	Weakest	contested	weak postcolonial state + <u>resource curse</u>
<u>Somaliland</u>	(boxed)	—	internal vs <u>external sovereignty</u> are separable
<u>ISIS</u>	(boxed)	religious only	the four characteristics as a checklist

- **Somaliland (internal vs external sovereignty)**. After Somalia collapsed in 1991, this ex-British region declared independence, wrote a 2001 constitution (an elected house + a house of **clan elders**), held real elections and grew on livestock/remittances — yet **no state recognises it** (one embassy, Ethiopia's). → *Shows the two sovereignties are separable*: it has near-full internal sovereignty but zero external — and looks more state-like than recognised Somalia.
- **ISIS — "was it a state?"** From its 2014 caliphate to 2017 defeat it held Belgium-sized territory (~6m people), taxed "every bushel of wheat" and ran a bureaucracy (even a DMV). But territory was only nominal, it rejected the international system (no external sovereignty), its legitimacy was purely religious, and it failed at **security**. → *Verdict: only "partially" a state* — the four characteristics used as a diagnostic checklist. (Tilly: "war made the state, and the state made war.")
- **Germany — first modern welfare state (strongest of the 11)**. Unified late (1871, Bismarck) on a merit-based **Prussian bureaucracy/military**; Bismarck built **Europe's first welfare programs** to undercut socialists. Legitimacy lurched: nationalism → Nazism → divided 1945–90 → reunified 1990, then led EU integration. → *Strong state despite a turbulent history; Fukuyama's "bureaucracy-first" path; voluntary ceding of sovereignty to the EU.*
- **Japan — determined sovereignty**. Consolidated under the **Tokugawa shogunate (1603)**; after US warships forced it open (1853), the **1867 Meiji Restoration** built a modern army, bureaucracy and constitution (1889) — the **first non-Western modern economy**. Militarism → WWII → US occupation

(first lost sovereignty in 400 years) → US-written pacifist democracy. → *Defensive modernisation; democracy replaces monarchy as legitimacy while the emperor stays symbolic.*

- **United Kingdom — the long evolution.** The opposite of the US: centuries of gradual change — single monarch from 1603, **Acts of Union 1707**, **Glorious Revolution 1688** starting the shift to liberal-democratic legitimacy; first to industrialise → global empire. → *Slow evolutionary state-building; sovereignty is reversible* — Scottish referendum (2014, lost 55–45) and **Brexit (2016)** reclaiming powers from the EU.
- **United States — a consciously crafted state.** Almost uniquely **created by design** (Declaration 1776 → Constitution after the failed Articles). Sovereignty tested by the **Civil War**; the Constitution built **federalism** and preserved slavery. Bureaucracy came *late* (machine politics until the **1880s Pendleton Act**). → *Rational-legal legitimacy via a written constitution; Fukuyama's "democracy-first" path; top external power but internally weakened by the legacy of slavery/racial inequality.*
- **Mexico — challenges to internal sovereignty.** A very weak first state (lost half its territory to the US, 1846–48); order under **Porfirio Díaz**, then the **Revolution (1910–20)** and **75 years of PRI rule** (electoral authoritarianism on oil + clientelism), ending with **Fox in 2000**. → *Above all, the loss of the monopoly on force* — drug cartels killed 75,000–100,000 in a decade.
- **China — economic legitimacy over reform.** Had a merit **Confucian bureaucracy** ~1,800 years before **Europe**; empire fell 1912 → **Communist victory 1949** (Mao; famine ≥20m dead) → after 1976 **Deng's** market reforms → history's fastest growth, now the #2 economy. → *Legitimacy shifts from communist ideology + Mao's charisma to economic performance* (a "modernising authoritarian" regime), tightening under Xi.
- **Brazil — many bases of legitimacy.** Had **more slaves than any American colony** and was the **last to abolish slavery (1888)**; gained independence peacefully as a monarchy. Cycled through charisma, **clientelism (the coronéis)**, Vargas's quasi-fascist **Estado Novo**, and military rule (1964–85) to democracy — then the **Petrobras scandal → 2016 impeachment**. → *A state that cycled through nearly every basis of legitimacy; corruption undermines the bureaucracy.*
- **India — enduring democracy in a weak state.** Territory forged by British rule; independence **1947** (Congress/Gandhi — the first successful 20th-c. anticolonial movement) amid **Partition** (largest migration in history, ≥1m dead). → *Uniquely for a postcolonial state, its legitimacy is continuous liberal democracy*, but the state is weak — corruption, mass poverty, Hindu–Muslim tension (its worst FSI indicator).
- **Russia — strong external, weak rule of law.** Four regimes: tsarist absolutism → the **communist USSR** (Stalin's modernisation killed ~20m) → a fragile 1990s democracy (oligarchs, mafias) → **Putin's electoral authoritarianism**; the USSR split into **15 states in 1991**; **Crimea annexed 2014**. → *External strength and nationalist legitimacy decoupled from internal rule of law.*
- **Iran — legitimacy via theocracy.** Heir to ancient Persia; **never colonised** but dominated by Britain/Russia; the **Pahlavi** modernising-authoritarian state (1925–79) → the **1979 revolution** under **Khomeini → the first modern theocracy**. → *Legitimacy runs monarchy → modernising authoritarianism → Islamic theocracy*; secure territory but a fairly weak state (corruption, sanctions, contested legitimacy).
- **Nigeria — an extremely weak state (weakest of the 11).** A colonial patchwork (Muslim north; Yoruba west; stateless Igbo east) under British "indirect rule"; independence 1960 → **Biafra civil war (1967–70, ~1m dead)** as oil came online; six coups; fragile democracy from 1999. → *The classic weak postcolonial state plus the resource curse* — oil fuels corruption and secession; sovereignty threatened by **Boko Haram**.

Key terms

Term	Meaning
State	Ongoing administrative apparatus making/implementing law in a territory
Government / Regime	The transient occupants / the <i>type</i> of government
Territory	Area with defined borders a state claims
External sovereignty	Recognised independence from outside powers
Internal sovereignty	Sole authority to make/enforce law inside
Legitimacy	The recognised right to rule
Traditional legitimacy	Right to rule from long-standing custom
Charismatic legitimacy	Right to rule from personal virtue/heroism
Rational-legal legitimacy	Right to rule via accepted laws/procedures
Bureaucracy	Appointed officials who implement the law
Feudal states / Absolutism	Overlapping sovereignties / single-monarch exclusive rule
Ideal type	Model of the purest version of something
Political goods	Security, rule of law, infrastructure a state provides
Strong / weak / failed state	Provides political goods generally / partially / loses sovereignty
Resource curse	Reliance on one resource lets the state ignore citizens
Quasi-states	Legally recognised but lacking a functioning state apparatus
Clientelism	Exchange of material resources for political support

Exam pointers

- Use the **four characteristics as a diagnostic checklist** (the ISIS box is the model answer).
- Give **Weber's three legitimacy types** with an example each, and note real states blend them (*developed under Legitimacy*).
- Explain **strong/weak/failed** as a continuum + at least two theories of *why* (Tilly's warfare • colonial legacies (Acemoglu, Johnson & Robinson) • North-Wallis-Weingast elite bargains; weakness = resource curse • international recognition).
- Keep **external vs internal sovereignty** distinct — Somaliland (internal only) and Russia (external strong, rule of law weak) are the go-to illustrations.

OD Ch. 4 — States and Identity

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 4.

Chapter résumé

Identity politics — organised around **nation, ethnicity, race, class, religion, gender and sexual orientation** — has become the central challenge to the modern state and to the liberal ideal of **equal citizenship**. The chapter's core theoretical move is to reject **primordialism** (identities as natural/ancient) for **constructivism**: an identity's *political saliency* is **socially constructed**, shaped by elites, grievance, and above all the state (education, censuses, laws). The central normative debate is **individual vs. group rights** — is legal equality enough, or do marginalised groups need recognition, autonomy, representation and status support? Each identity type gets a case study; the chapter weights **gender/sexuality, race, and religion** most heavily.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** an identity's **political saliency is socially constructed, not natural** (constructivism, not primordialism) — so the real battle is **individual vs. group rights** over recognition, autonomy, representation and status.

The red thread. The whole chapter is *one idea applied seven times*. For **each** identity marker — nation • ethnicity • race • class • religion • gender • sexuality — ask the same **two questions**: ① **how was its political saliency constructed?** and ② **individual rights or group rights?** Every section and case below is a variation on those two questions; if you can answer them for a marker, you can answer the chapter.

Lecture framing (AUW): this chapter answers the lecture's 4th question — *who does the state represent?* A state claims a **territory**, and territory comes with "**the people**" it claims to represent — but people and territory rarely coincide neatly. Key distinction: **State** (territorial/administrative org) ≠ **Nation** (a people with shared belonging) ≠ **Nationalism** (*the political project of making the nation politically sovereign / controlling a state*). A state can contain many nations; a nation can exist without a state; nationhood is **socially constructed** (Anderson's "*imagined community*").

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Political saliency** — how politically important an identity is; **created, not innate**.
- **Primordialism vs constructivism** — identities as natural/ancient vs **socially constructed** ("imagined communities," Anderson). *The chapter adopts constructivism.*
- **Nation vs ethnic group** — a nation has/seek a **state**; an ethnic group does not (a dissatisfied ethnic group can *become* a nation).
- **Cultural vs civic nationalism** → citizenship by **jus sanguinis** (blood, Germany) vs **jus soli** (soil, France); civic seen as more democracy-friendly.
- **The four demands of identity groups** — recognition • autonomy • representation • improved social status.
- **Group-rights toolkit: consociationalism** (Lijphart — share central power) vs the centripetal approach (Horowitz — incentivise leaders to moderate).
- **Three forms of secularism** — **neutral state** (USA) • **laïcité** (France) • **positive accommodation** (Germany); India's variant = "**principled distance**."
- **Assimilationist vs liberationist** strategies (feminist & LGBTQ).

Section-by-section main points

Understanding Identity — the chapter's core move

Core: it isn't groups but their political saliency that's constructed — **saliency is made, not given**. (*This is the lead argument for any ch. 4 answer.*)

	Primordialism (<i>almost no social scientist</i>)	Constructivism (<i>the chapter's choice</i>)
Identities are...	natural, ancient ("time immemorial"), fixed	socially constructed — "imagined communities" (Anderson)
Defined by	kinship, language, phenotype	stories, symbols, interpretation
Do they change?	no	yes — flexible; you hold many at once; elites activate whichever fits
Who talks this way	ethnic/national leaders (it legitimises their claims)	social scientists (Huntington's <i>Clash of Civilizations</i> = a sophisticated cultural version)

Why the chapter picks constructivism — primordialism *cannot explain* three things constructivism can:

1. **Change over time** — the *same* difference goes dormant → deadly: ex-Yugoslavia's religious identities barely mattered under communism, then became killing lines *as* war spread.
2. **Identities appearing / splitting** — "Serbo-Croatian" fractured into three "languages" as war came; "**Asian American**" & "**Hispanic**" were *coined* in the 1960s; "Igbo" as a unified group first appears in 1930s documents.
3. **The state manufacturing identity** — via schooling ("national history"), censuses and elections the state decides which categories even exist and become salient.

→ **The move:** reject primordialism, adopt constructivism, then for each marker ask *how* its saliency was built.

Gender is the odd one out: rarely territorial, but the "proper woman" ideal **polices the boundary of every other identity**.

| The Policy Debate — individual vs group rights (*emphasised*)

Core: once an identity is salient, groups make **four demands**; the whole fight is whether to answer them with **equal individual rights** (liberalism) or **special group rights** (multiculturalism).

- **The four demands:** ① **recognition** (Taylor's "politics of recognition" — the universal one) • ② **autonomy** (self-rule over a region or personal/religious law; thwarted → secession → civil war) • ③ **representation** (may need institutional change) • ④ **improved status** (most groups start poorer).
- **FOR group rights** (Kymlicka): legal equality alone can't include culturally distinct minorities → multicultural integration (vs **assimilation**). Institutional form: **consociationalism** (Lijphart — each group gets a share of central power + vetoes; Switzerland, Belgium, Lebanon, Northern Ireland) — *the most common post-Cold War response*.
- **AGAINST group rights** (classic liberalism): only individuals have rights; group rights **freeze inequality** and erode the shared identity democracy needs. Alternative: the centripetal approach (Horowitz — electoral rules that *reward broad, cross-ethnic appeal*; Nigeria).
- **The sharp dilemma** (exam favourite): should groups pursuing *illiberal* goals — e.g. religious law limiting gender equality — get special rights?

| Nations, Nationalism & Immigration

Core: the only line between a nation and an ethnic group is the **state** — a nation has or seeks one; and nations are *made*, not found.

- Nations are **modern** and often *built by states* (d'Azeleglio: "*We have made Italy. Now we must make Italians.*").

- **Cultural (jus sanguinis) vs civic (jus soli) nationalism**; **immigration** is where the fight plays out (Syrian refugees, Brexit, Trump's wall). Even "civic" USA isn't so civic — **50%** think a "true American" is Christian, English-speaking, US-born.

Ethnicity

Core: ethnic saliency is **switched on**, not ancient — by **leadership + grievance + resource wealth + fear**.

- "Imagined" and shiftable (Serbo-Croatian split into three languages *as war came*); wants recognition/autonomy/representation (India reorganised states on linguistic lines).

Race (*heavily emphasised*)

Core: race = identity built on **physical** markers by **external imposition** (to justify domination/slavery) — the one identity that starts as *power over* a group, not self-assertion.

- Differs from ethnicity in *marking* (physical vs cultural), *origin* (imposed vs self-claimed) and built-in **power**. Genetic variation across "races" is no bigger than within them. Constructed by place: US "**one-drop rule**" vs Brazil's 12+ visual categories.

Social Class

Core: the one identity still often defined by "**objective**" criteria — yet its political saliency is falling.

- Marx's classes (bourgeoisie/proletariat) fit a post-industrial economy awkwardly; constructivists see class as symbols/aspiration. Union density ~35% (1985) → ~17%; despite rising inequality, workers moved to **nationalist/right parties** (Brexit, Trump), not class politics (Huber: leaders mobilise whichever cleavage most cheaply wins).

Religion & the Secular State (*heavily emphasised*)

Core: religion's demands mirror ethnicity's (recognition + autonomy over personal law); what varies is **how the state handles religion** — three models of secularism to memorise:

Model	Rule	Country	Flashpoint
Neutral state	neutral about religion, but not opposed	USA	school prayer, creationism
Laïcité	religion barred from the public sphere	France , Turkey, Mexico	the veil bans
Positive accommodation	state supports registered faiths	Germany (church tax)	recognising non-hierarchical Islam

- India's "**principled distance**" is a fourth stance — treat groups **differently on purpose** (see the India case).
- Religion is more flexible than ethnicity (you can convert) *except* when politicised (ex-Yugoslavia marked identity despite low religiosity).

Gender & Sexual Orientation (*the most heavily emphasised — two cases*)

Core: both movements pose the multiculturalism question in its sharpest form — **assimilate into existing norms, or transform them?**

- **Assimilationist** (liberal feminists / mainstream LGBTQ): win **equal rights within** existing institutions (same-sex marriage extends a heterosexual institution).
- **Liberationist** (Iris Young; radical LGBTQ): **transform the norms themselves** ("sexual citizenship"; marriage seen as patriarchal).
- Both grew from the 1960s West (**Stonewall, 1969**); the **transgender** movement now challenges the gender **binary** itself.
- Outcomes: big legal gains, not parity — women = **24% of MPs**; quotas <10 states (1980) → >100 (2010); same-sex marriage **Netherlands (2001)** → 25 countries by 2019.

Cases & examples

Each identity type gets a case; each below: *what it shows* → *the concept*.

- **Northern Ireland — Good Friday Agreement (1998)**. With neither unionists nor nationalists able to win, the 1998 deal built a **consociational** system: NI stays British, power devolves to a PR-elected assembly, first/deputy-first ministers shared, every member labels as unionist/nationalist/other. It has collapsed repeatedly (2002–07; since 2017). → *Consociationalism/power-sharing — ends the violence but doesn't erase the division*.
- **Nationalism in Germany**. Germany ran a **strictly cultural** nationalism (**jus sanguinis**, codified 1913), auto-granting citizenship to ethnic Germans while denying it to German-born children of ~3m Turkish "guest workers." A 2000 reform opened **jus soli** (birth + residence + language); still **>40% of Turkish residents remain non-citizens**. Merkel's ~500k+ Syrian refugees (2015) revived the fight — the far-right **AfD** won 12.6% and 94 seats (2017). → *Cultural vs civic nationalism; immigration and who counts as "the nation."*
- **Ethnicity in Nigeria**. ~400 languages; the big three (**Hausa, Yoruba, Igbo**) were **constructed in the 20th century** ("Igbo" first appears in 1930s documents). A 1966 coup → anti-Igbo pogroms → **Biafra (civil war 1967–70, >1m dead)**. Nigeria then used **centripetal rules** (parties must be national; the president must win ≥25% in two-thirds of states; north/south rotation). → *Constructed/modern ethnicity + the centripetal approach + oil conflict*.
- **Racial politics in the USA (most detailed case)**. Race was **legally constructed** (one-drop → 1/32 under Jim Crow); "white" meant "not black," and the Irish/Italians/Jews only slowly "became white"; "**Asian American**"/"**Hispanic**" were coined in the 1960s. Persistent gaps: white wealth **>6×** black/Hispanic; ~1/3 of black men touch the justice system. From **Obama (2008)** to **Trump (2016)** — where **racial resentment, not economics, best predicted the Trump vote** (Sides/Tesler/Vavreck). → *Social construction of race, external imposition + power, and white backlash*.
- **Class politics in the UK**. Britain openly *recognises* class; unions built their **own party (Labour, 1900)** and peaked at **just over half the workforce unionised in 1979**, before the "winter of discontent" brought **Thatcher**, who broke union power; Blair's Labour moved to the centre. The working class shrank and many backed **Brexit**. → *Objective-vs-constructed class and the **decline of class salience** — mobilisation shifted from class to nation*.
- **Secularism in India**. A plural, devout society (>80% Hindu, ~13% Muslim) built on "**principled distance**" — the state treats groups *differently*, giving Muslims more autonomy over **personal law**. **Shah Bano (1986)**: the Court granted a divorced Muslim woman maintenance, then Parliament **reversed it** to restore Muslim personal law (communal rights beat individual equality). **Gujarat 2002**: ~2,000 Muslims killed. Modi/BJP push **Hindutva** against official secularism. → *Principled-distance secularism; autonomy vs uniform citizenship, fought through women's rights*.
- **Women in Iran**. A contradiction of **social gains but political/cultural repression**: Khomeini's regime mandated the hijab and stripped divorce rights, yet **1979→2002 female literacy rose 31%→69%, fertility**

fell 6.5→2.7, and women became 60% of university students — while holding ~2% of top posts. Islamic feminists claim *ijtihad* (the right to interpret texts); anti-veil protests since 2017. → *Social vs political gains; secular and Islamic feminism; gains are reversible under conservative rule.*

- **LGBTQ rights in Brazil.** Ended anti-sodomy law very early (1823), hosts the world's largest pride parade, yet is the largest Catholic country and elected the anti-gay Bolsonaro (2018). Courts (not the legislature) delivered civil unions (2011) and same-sex marriage (2013) via the constitution's anti-discrimination clause — but Brazil leads the world in transgender murders. → *LGBTQ rights in a new democracy — real court-won recognition alongside violence and religious backlash; mostly assimilationist.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Political saliency	How politically important an identity is (created, not innate)
Primordialism	Identities as natural/ancient/God-given
Constructivism	Identities as socially constructed ("imagined communities")
Social construction	Ongoing process by which a society defines who "we" are
Nation / Nationalism	Group that has/seek a state / the desire for one
Ethnic group	Cultural group <i>not</i> seeking its own state
Cultural / civic nationalism	Unity by shared culture / by shared political beliefs
Jus sanguinis / jus soli	Citizenship by blood / by soil (residence)
Race	Group defined on perceived <i>physical</i> markers, by external imposition
Social class	Group sharing status by wealth/income/work/education
Consociationalism	Ease conflict by giving each group a share of central power
Centripetal approach	Incentivise leaders to moderate & broaden appeal
Autonomy / Assimilation	Partial self-rule / minorities adopt the majority culture
Multicultural integration	Accommodate enduring ethnocultural identities
Neutral state / laïcité / positive accommodation	Three forms of secularism (USA / France / Germany)
Assimilationist / liberationist	Equal rights within norms / transform the norms

Exam pointers

- Lead with constructivism vs primordialism and *why* the chapter picks constructivism (saliency is *made*, not given) — the full argument + comparison table is worked out under Understanding Identity.
- Frame any identity conflict with the four demands + individual-vs-group-rights debate, then the consociationalism (Northern Ireland) vs centripetal (Nigeria) toolkit (*developed under The Policy Debate*).
- Know the three forms of secularism with a country each, plus India's principled distance (*table under Religion & the Secular State*).
- For gender/sexuality use the assimilationist vs liberationist split; Iran (social vs political gains) and Brazil (court wins vs backlash) are the sharpest cases.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky stats, dates and quotes from Module 2 (ch. 2 & 4) — the stuff that makes an answer land.

Quotable lines

- "L'état, c'est moi" ("The state, it is me") — **Louis XIV**, on the absolutist state not yet separate from the monarch. (ch.2)
- "War made the state, and the state made war." — **Charles Tilly**. (ch.2)
- "The difference between fascism and democracy is not whether the police are called, but when." — on the monopoly of force. (ch.2)
- "We have made Italy. Now we must make Italians." — **d'Azeglio**, on nations as built. (ch.4)
- Thesis of ch.4: liberalism vs communism defined the 20th century, "but nationalism won."

Striking numbers

- Europe went from ~500 sovereign entities in 1500 to ~50 states today. (ch.2)
- **China built a merit bureaucracy ~1,800 years before Europe** (empire united 221 BCE). (ch.2)
- **Mexican cartel violence**: 75,000–100,000 killed in a decade — a direct challenge to the monopoly on force. (ch.2)
- **India's Partition (1947)**: likely the largest migration in history, ≥1 million dead. (ch.2)
- US **white wealth is >6×** black/Hispanic; ~⅓ of **black men** pass through the justice system. (ch.4)
- Union density ~35% (1985) → ~17% today; UK unions peaked at **just over half the workforce in 1979**. (ch.4)
- Iran **1979→2002**: literacy 31%→69%, fertility 6.5→2.7, women 60% of university students — but ~2% of top posts. (ch.4)

Memorable facts

- Tilly's "**protection racket**": the early European state is basically a protection racket — rulers sold *protection* against threats they themselves partly created, funding it by **extraction** (tax). (lecture)
 - **Brandenburg-Prussia** became a strong state **not by winning wars** but by having to fight in a brutally **competitive** neighbourhood — the pressure forced a strong tax-and-bureaucracy machine. (lecture)
 - **Germany** built **Europe's first welfare state** (Bismarck) as a tool to undercut socialists. (ch.2)
 - **Japan** was the **first non-Western modern economy**; US warships forced it open in 1853; the 1945 occupation was its first lost sovereignty in **400 years**. (ch.2)
 - **Brazil** had **more slaves than any American colony** and abolished slavery **last (1888)** — yet legalised **same-sex marriage (2013)** while leading the world in **transgender murders**. (ch.2 & 4)
 - **ISIS** reportedly ran a **DMV** and picked up garbage more efficiently than Iraq — but still failed the "state" test on security and recognition. (ch.2)
 - **Somaliland** works as a state but has **one embassy** and **zero recognition**. (ch.2)
 - The far-right **AfD (2017)** was the **first far-right party in the German parliament since 1960**. (ch.4)
 - **Stonewall (1969)** turned a tiny movement into a mass one "literally overnight." (ch.4)
 - "**Igbo**" as a unified identity first appears in documents only in the **1930s** — ethnicity as a modern construction. (ch.4)
-

Lecture 3: Political Regimes (FK)

Required reading: OD ch. 3 (*States, Citizens, and Regimes*)

Theme of the lecture (Filip Kiil): ch. 2 asked *what a state is*; ch. 3 asks *what kind of government rules it* — the **regime** — and sorts regimes by the **ideology** that answers **who may rule and what rights citizens get**.

Lecture frame (FK) — the State–Regime–Citizen(–Ideology) nexus

Core: four linked concepts; the **regime** sits between the permanent **state** and the current **government**, and is classified by its **ideology**.

- **State** — the ongoing administrative apparatus (ch. 2); most enduring.
- **Regime** — the formal + **informal** institutions defining the *type* of government; more enduring than governments, less than the state. (*US: 46 administrations, one democratic regime since 1789; Nigeria: 8 regimes.*)
- **Citizen** — a member of the political community with **rights + duties** (vs a *subject*, who has only duties/obedience).
- **Ideology** — defines the **state–citizen relationship** and is how we classify regimes — but regimes often **diverge** from their ideology (informal institutions dominate, especially in weak states).

The V-Dem / "Regimes of the World" ladder (Lührmann, Tannenberg & Lindberg 2018) — the modern measure the lecture uses:

Regime	Multi-party elections?	Free & fair?	Rights + checks on the executive?
Closed autocracy	No	—	No
Electoral autocracy	Yes	No (restrictions undermine fairness)	No
Electoral democracy	Yes	Yes	Partial
Liberal democracy	Yes	Yes	Yes (rights, legal equality, checks)

Explaining regime *change* (the same **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** lens from Lecture 1):

Lens	How it explains change
Interests	Elites expand/restrict democracy to maximise power (democratise post-1990 for aid; backslide when power is threatened).
Beliefs	Democratic ideals spread in 19th–20th c.; fascism/communism caused reversals; recent populism erodes liberal values.
Structures	Industrialisation enabled democratisation; Cold War blocs sustained autocracy; globalisation/inequality now strain democracy.

OD Ch. 3 — States, Citizens, and Regimes

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 3.

Chapter résumé

Examines the **state↔people** relationship as embodied in different **regimes** — the formal + informal institutions defining a *type* of government. It traces the rise of the "**citizen**" (vs "subject") and of **civil society**, presents **T.H. Marshall's** three rights of citizenship (civil, political, social), then gives the chapter's core: a **taxonomy of regime types classified by ideology** — liberal democracy, communism, fascism, modernizing authoritarianism, personalist, electoral authoritarianism, theocracy. A recurring thread: **no regime works exactly as its ideology claims** — informal institutions often matter more.

★ **The heart of the chapter:** a **regime** = the formal + informal institutions defining a *type* of government, classified by its **ideology**. The single axis that orders them all: **how much power goes to citizens vs. the state**. **Liberal democracy** (limited state, broad rights) is the benchmark; every other regime tilts power toward the state and restricts full citizenship to a select group.

The red thread. Read the whole chapter as answers to **one question** — *how is power shared between citizens and the state?* Liberal democracy shares it widely (limited government + Marshall's rights); communism, fascism, modernizing & electoral authoritarianism, and theocracy concentrate it (in the party / a leader / a developing elite / God), restricting full citizenship to the working class / loyal nationals / the developers / the faithful. For **every** regime type ask: **who has power, and what rights do citizens get?**

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **State vs regime vs government** — continuous apparatus / *type* of government / current occupants.
- **Citizen vs subject** — rights + duties vs duties only.
- **Marshall's three rights** — **civil** • **political** • **social** (the yardstick for "full" citizenship).
- **Ideology-based regime taxonomy** — the seven types (below).
- **Dahl's 8 guarantees** — the working definition of liberal democracy.
- **Formal vs informal institutions** — informal rules (patronage, factions) often explain how a regime *really* works.

Section-by-section main points

| Citizens & civil society

Core: modern politics invented the **citizen** (rights + duties) out of the **subject** (obedience only) — and full citizenship needs all three of **Marshall's rights**.

- **Citizen vs subject:** 200–300 years ago Europeans were **subjects** of absolutist monarchs (no mechanism to protect "rights"); citizenship arose as sovereignty moved from the monarch to "**the people**" (after the French Revolution people addressed each other as "*citizen*").
- **Marshall (1963)** — **three rights:** **civil** (individual freedom, fair treatment) • **political** (participation, vote) • **social** (welfare, socioeconomic equality). Full citizenship needs *enough* social equality to make civil/political equality real. **Virtually no country fully provides all three.**
- **Civil society** — organised, nongovernmental, nonviolent activity by groups larger than families/firms; impossible under absolutism, enabled by religious pluralism + capitalism.
- **Popular sovereignty** — even dictators claim to rule *on behalf of* the people (theocracy claims God willed the exception). Emerging **postnational** citizenship (EU, ICC) — but core rights still sit in the **nation-state**.

Regimes, ideologies & citizens

Core: regimes are classified by **ideology**, but never match it perfectly — **informal institutions** often dominate (especially in weak states).

- Liberal democracy is the **benchmark all regimes respond to**: ~90% of the world's constitutions — including authoritarian ones — mention "democracy" (Elkins et al. 2014).

The regime taxonomy — *memorise this (the exam core)*

Core: seven regime types, each defined by an ideology answering **who has power** and **what citizens get**.

Regime	Key idea	Who has power
<u>Liberal democracy</u>	Individuals free with natural rights; govt must preserve life, liberty, property	The legislature (elected, removable)
Communism	<u>Historical materialism</u> → proletarian revolution → classless, stateless society	<u>Vanguard party</u> now; the proletariat "later"
Fascism	Organic society; the state creates the nation ; corporatism	A supreme leader
<u>Modernizing authoritarianism</u>	<i>Development</i> needs unity, so democracy must wait	A modern (educated) elite
Personalist regime	Claims to modernise but is really neopatrimonial	An individual ruler
<u>Electoral authoritarianism</u>	Blends democratic + authoritarian legitimacy	The ruling party (via rigged elections)
Theocracy	Rule by divine authority (Islamism → sharia)	God (via the clergy) — not the people

Liberal democracy

Core: liberal democracy = **democracy (rule by the people)** + **liberalism (individual rights)** — a *limited* state that protects rights and holds free, competitive elections.

- **Roots:** liberalism arose in the 16th–17th-c. religious wars; social contract theory (Hobbes, Locke, Montesquieu, Rousseau). **Locke:** government is legitimate only if it preserves **life, liberty, property** (Jefferson → "pursuit of happiness"). Democracy was added later; early liberals limited citizenship to **male property owners** — expanded over the 19th–20th c.
- **Dahl's 8 guarantees** (the working definition): freedom of **association** · **expression** · right to **vote** · broad **office eligibility** · leaders' right to **compete** · alternative **information** · **free & fair elections** · institutions that make policy **depend on votes**.
- **Varieties of democracy:** **liberal** (political rights — UK) · **social democracy** (adds economic regulation + social rights — Sweden; a variant within liberal democracy) · **participatory** (direct involvement beyond voting — Switzerland).

Communism

Core: Marx's historical materialism — economic forces drive history — predicts a proletarian revolution ending in a classless, stateless utopia; in practice it produced the totalitarian state.

- **Feudalism → capitalism → socialism → communism.** Liberal democracy is a "shell" for capitalism; liberal rights = "equal rights for unequal people."
- **Stages: socialism** = collective ownership + dictatorship of the proletariat (a *class* dictatorship) → eventually stateless, classless **communism** (human nature itself changes).
- **Critique:** any theory promising utopia tends toward the totalitarian state (Russia/Stalin case).

Fascism

Core: antiliberal *and* anticommunist — the state creates and embodies the nation; the individual exists only for the state; citizens have **duties, not rights**.

- **Organic** conception of society; a **supreme leader** embodies the nation. **Corporatism:** one state-controlled organisation per sector (one union, one business association). Rejects rationality/materialism → glorifies struggle & war → **totalitarian** (Nazi Germany case).

Modernizing authoritarianism

Core: legitimacy through **development, not rights** — a **modern elite** must guide progress, and democracy would only interfere.

- Technocratic legitimacy rooted in **modernization theory** (postcolonial states must follow the West's path). **Four institutional forms:** **one-party** (civilian; postcolonial Africa/Asia — Tanzania) • **military** (coup — Brazil) • **bureaucratic-authoritarian** • **personalist**.

Personalist regimes

Core: in the **weakest states**, one leader captures everything — even the party/military that raised him — via **neopatrimonial** patron–client loyalty rather than institutions.

- Weak, unstable, unpredictable; rule of law inconsistent. Most common in Africa (Mobutu, Marcos, Abacha/Nigeria).

Electoral authoritarianism (hybrid)

Core: a **hybrid** — real opposition and elections *exist*, but the ruling party **manipulates the rules** so it never actually loses; it **proclaims itself democratic**.

- Blends liberal-democratic (elections) + modernizing-authoritarian (limits for "stability/development") legitimacy. Spread after the Cold War because open authoritarianism lost international legitimacy (Mexico/PRI case).

Theocracy

Core: rule by **religious authorities on behalf of God** — so ultimate sovereignty is **Allah's, not the people's**.

- **Islamism** (a 19th–20th-c. reaction to Western imperialism, *not* traditional): sharia should be the basis of government. Key terms: **sharia** (law) • **ijtihad** (individual interpretation) vs **taqlid** (blind acceptance) • **shura** (consultation — the opening for quasi-democracy) • **umma** (community) • **jihad** (three kinds: inner struggle [most important] → righting injustice → armed defence [least]). Iran is the world's **only true theocracy** (Iran case).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — circle them back. Each country is a worked example of one regime type; read every case for (1) which type · (2) who has power · (3) what rights citizens get. The table maps case → type; the write-ups tell the story.

Case	Regime type	Who has power	Freedom House
<u>UK</u>	<u>Liberal democracy</u>	Parliament (sovereign)	Free
<u>Russia/USSR</u>	Communism → (now electoral authoritarian)	<u>Vanguard party</u> / Stalin	Not Free
<u>Germany (Nazi)</u>	Fascism	A supreme leader	(Free today)
<u>Brazil</u>	Modernizing authoritarian (military)	Technocratic military elite	Free (today)
<u>Nigeria (Abacha)</u>	Personalist	One ruler (neopatrimonial)	Partly Free
<u>Mexico (PRI)</u>	Electoral authoritarian	The ruling party	Partly Free
<u>Iran</u>	Theocracy	God (via the clergy)	Not Free
<u>Tanzania</u>	Modernizing authoritarian (one-party)	A single party	—

- **United Kingdom** — "cradle of democracy." Liberal democracy evolved gradually, with no single written constitution and no revolutionary break from monarchy: **Magna Carta (1215)** → **Glorious Revolution (1688)** → **Bill of Rights (1689)**; the franchise expanded only under pressure (1832 middle class ~7%; women's suffrage 1918); recent **devolution (1997)**, a standalone **Supreme Court (2005)**. → *The first liberal democracy; power rests on parliamentary sovereignty (a powerful informal institution) + the slow build-up of all three Marshall rights.*
- **Russia/USSR** — the first "communist" regime. Revolution came in the "wrong country" (agrarian, not advanced-capitalist). **Lenin** added the vanguard party and led the **October Revolution 1917**; **Stalin** built a totalitarian state (rapid industrialisation, 2–20 million deaths); **Gorbachev's** reforms → collapse **Dec 1991** into 15 states. → *Communism in practice = the totalitarian state; the regime diverged wildly from Marx's theory (Marx → Lenin → Stalin).*
- **Germany** — the rise of the Nazis (fascism). Hitler was elected, not a coup — the Nazis won 37% (1932) amid depression; the **Reichstag fire (1933)** → Enabling Act → dictatorship; unions replaced by a party-controlled front (corporatism); Nazism fused fascism with **racism** → the **Holocaust (~6m Jews)**. → *Fascism + totalitarian state; its horror delegitimised fascism globally, though neofascism persists (Le Pen's National Front — 2nd in France's 2002 presidential race).*
- **Brazil** — a military modernizing-authoritarian regime (1964–85). A US-backed coup installed a **technocratic military elite** that staked legitimacy on **development + anticommunism** (National Security Doctrine); state-led industry produced the "**Brazilian Miracle**" (1967–73) but rising inequality. When growth stalled, unions + the Church revived civil society → **democracy restored 1985**. → *Modernizing authoritarianism in military form — legitimacy = development, so no growth = no legitimacy.*
- **Nigeria** — **Abacha's personalist regime (1993–98)**. After the military annulled the **1993 election**, **General Abacha** seized power, gutted the courts, jailed/killed opponents (hanged poet **Ken Saro-Wiwa**), and looted ~\$3 billion — ruling by **neopatrimonial** oil patronage. His **sudden death (1998)** ended it; wary officers delivered the **democracy in place since 1999**. → *Personalist regime — a weak state's institutions crumble around one man.*

- **Mexico — the PRI (electoral authoritarianism).** The PRI ruled ~71 years via regular *but rigged* elections — a **democratic veneer** over **clientelism, corporatism and fraud** (Tlatelolco Massacre 1968), with power rotated among factions and presidents limited to one **sexenio**. Erosion (contested 1988) → **Vicente Fox (PAN) broke the monopoly in 2000**. → *The classic hybrid regime — informal institutions (clientelism, fraud) dominate the formal democratic shell.*
- **Iran — the Islamic Republic (theocracy).** Khomeini's 1979 revolution built the first modern theocracy: a **Supreme Leader** (a cleric with veto power) + a **Guardian Council (12 clergy)** vetting all candidates/laws, *above* an elected president & parliament (**Majlis**). The **1979 constitution** makes **Allah sovereign** and sharia the sole law. → *Theocracy — permanent tension between theocratic authority and quasi-democratic elements (shura/elections).*
- **Tanzania — Nyerere's one-party regime.** Julius Nyerere ("Africa's philosopher-king") justified a **one-party** state by claiming Africa lacked class divisions; his **ujamaa** "African socialism" ruined agriculture but achieved **near-universal literacy**; he **voluntarily resigned (1985)**. → *Civilian one-party modernizing authoritarianism — the "development vs democracy" trade-off.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Regime	Formal + informal institutions defining a <i>type</i> of government
Citizen / Subject	Member with rights + duties / person with duties (obedience) only
Civil / Political / Social rights	Marshall's three: freedom & fair treatment / participation / welfare & equality
Civil society	Organised nongovernmental, nonviolent activity beyond family/firm
Social contract theory	Legitimate govt = free individuals contracting to be governed
Liberal democracy	Democracy + liberalism; Dahl's 8 guarantees
Social / Participatory democracy	Adds social rights & economic control / adds direct participation
Parliamentary sovereignty	Parliament is supreme (UK)
Historical materialism	Material/economic forces drive history (Marxism)
Dictatorship of the proletariat	First communist stage: rule by the working class
Totalitarian state	Controls ~all of society, eliminates civil society
Vanguard party	Lenin: elite party leading the proletariat
Corporatism	One state-controlled organisation per social sector
Modernizing authoritarianism	Legitimacy from "development" by a modern elite
Technocratic legitimacy	Right to rule based on expertise
Personalist regime / Neopatrimonial	One ruler dominates / power via personal patron–client loyalty
Electoral authoritarianism	Hybrid: opposition + elections, but rigged
Theocracy / Islamism	Rule by religious authority / sharia as the basis of government

Exam pointers

- Nail the state / regime / government / citizen distinctions + Marshall's three rights (civil/political/social) — the framing for any answer.
- Reproduce the seven-type regime taxonomy (key idea + **who has power**) — and answer everything through the red thread: *how is power shared between citizens and the state?*
- Define liberal democracy via Dahl's 8 guarantees + the **three varieties** (liberal/social/participatory).
- Distinguish the **authoritarian types** with a case each: communism (Russia) · fascism (Germany) · modernizing (Brazil/Tanzania) · personalist (Nigeria) · electoral authoritarian (Mexico) · theocracy (Iran).
- Use the **V-Dem ladder** (closed autocracy → electoral autocracy → electoral democracy → liberal democracy) and the **Interests/Beliefs/Structures** lens to discuss *regime change*.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 3 (regimes).

Quotable lines

- Mussolini: "*The State is all-embracing; outside of it no human or spiritual values can exist*" — and he openly embraced the label "**totalitarian**."
- Marx: communism is "*a spectre haunting Europe*" (*Communist Manifesto*, 1848); liberal rights = "*equal rights for unequal people*."
- Nyerere: "*When a village of a hundred people have sat and talked together until they agreed where a well should be dug, they have practised democracy*."
- Locke's core liberties = "**life, liberty and property**" → Jefferson's "**life, liberty and the pursuit of happiness**."

Striking numbers

- ~**90%** of the world's constitutions — including authoritarian ones — mention "democracy."
- **Dahl** = **8** guarantees of liberal democracy.
- Deaths under **Stalin**: estimated **2–20 million**; USSR dissolved **Dec 1991** into **15** states.
- Hitler's Nazis won **37% (1932)** and he was **elected** chancellor — not a coup; ~**6 million** Jews killed.
- The **PRI** ruled **71 years**, winning **98% of local/congressional elections 1946–73** (and **98.7%** of the 1976 presidential vote).
- Iran's **Guardian Council** = **12 clergy**; Iran is nearly all **Shiite**, though Sunnis are ~**85%** of the world's Muslims.

Memorable facts

- The US has had **46 administrations but one regime** (since 1789); **Nigeria has had 8 regimes**.
- "**Kremlinology**" — analysts inferred Soviet power from who stood closest to the leader at parades.
- **Abacha** (Nigeria) looted ~**\$3 billion** and hanged the poet **Ken Saro-Wiwa**.
- Le Pen's **National Front** came **2nd in France's 2002 presidential election** — neofascism didn't die with 1945.
- The **three jihads**: inner struggle (most important) → righting injustice in the *umma* → armed defence (least important) — the reverse of the popular Western image.

Lecture 4: Systems of Government

Required reading: OD ch. 5 (*Governing Institutions in Democracies*)

Theme of the lecture: the various elements of states and systems of government — the different types of executive and legislative systems, focusing in particular on **parliamentarism vs. presidentialism**.

Lecture frame (FK). *Why it matters*: the institutional set-up **shapes policy** with big downstream consequences for people and businesses, and explains **why democracies function so differently** (US flashpoints the lecture cites: **Citizens United**, **Roe v. Wade**, the **filibuster**). Everything below runs on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** framing + Tsebelis's **veto players**.

OD Ch. 5 — Governing Institutions in Democracies

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 5.

Chapter résumé

How democracies organise their governing institutions — **executive, legislature, judiciary, bureaucracy**, and the **national↔subnational** split — and why the same rules on paper produce different outcomes depending on **context** (party number/discipline, institutionalisation). The organising claim: **the executive–legislative relationship** "more than anything else distinguishes different kinds of democracies," giving three models — **parliamentarism** (fusion, Westminster), **presidentialism** (separation, US), and **semi-presidentialism** (dual executive, France/Russia) — judged on **accountability, effective policymaking, and stability**. It sits all this on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** continuum (few vs many **veto players**), then covers **judicial review**, **bureaucracy** (the **principal–agent problem**), and **federal vs unitary** systems.

★ **The heart of the chapter**: the **executive–legislative relationship** is what most distinguishes democracies — **parliamentary** (powers *fused*), **presidential** (powers *separated*), or **semi-presidential** (executive *split*). Each is a different answer to **how executive power is chosen, checked, and removed** — trading off **accountability, effective policymaking and stability**.

The red thread. Everything hangs on one question: **how is executive power organised and held accountable?** Place each system on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** line (few ↔ many **veto players**): Westminster parliamentarism = most majoritarian (power concentrated, clear vertical accountability, weak horizontal check); US presidentialism = built-in separation/veto players (strong horizontal check, gridlock-prone). For any case ask: **how is the executive chosen · how is it removed · how many veto players · what's the accountability/efficiency/stability trade-off?**

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Executive** split into **head of state** (symbolic, represents the country) vs **head of government** (runs policy).
- **The three systems**: **parliamentary** (fusion) · **presidential** (separation) · **semi-presidential** (split executive).

- **Majoritarian ↔ consensus democracy** (Lijphart) + **veto players** (Tsebelis) — the master frame.
- **Vertical vs horizontal accountability** (O'Donnell) — citizens→state vs state→state.
- **Judicial review** (+ common vs code law) · **principal-agent problem** (bureaucracy) · **federal vs unitary**.
- **The stability debate**: Linz's "*Perils of Presidentialism*."

Section-by-section main points

| The framing — majoritarian vs consensus, and accountability

Core: institutions differ by **how much they concentrate vs disperse power** — Lijphart's majoritarian↔consensus line, measured by the number of **veto players**.

- **Majoritarian** (UK): single-party executive, executive dominates the legislature, unicameral, easily amended constitution → **few veto players**. **Consensus** (US/Germany): coalition executives, executive–legislative balance, bicameral, rigid constitution → **many veto players**.
- **Veto player** (Tsebelis): any actor whose agreement is needed to change policy — more of them (+ greater ideological distance) = less policy change.
- **Accountability** (O'Donnell): **vertical** = citizens hold the state accountable (elections, ch. 6); **horizontal** = state institutions check each other (this chapter). Only the **executive** is essential to all states; legislature + judiciary exist to *limit* it.

★ **Why the majoritarian/PR choice matters for redistribution** (Iversen & Soskice 2006 — from the deck): with three classes (lower/middle/upper), in a **proportional** system the **middle class sides with the lower class** to redistribute from the rich → **bigger welfare states**; in a **majoritarian** system the middle class sides with the **upper class** to avoid heavy taxes from the poor → **less redistribution**. This is a big reason PR democracies redistribute more — a bridge to Lecture 5, and it helps explain the Sweden vs US welfare puzzle.

| Executives & legislatures

Core: the executive fills two roles — **head of state** (symbolic) and **head of government** (policy) — and *how those relate to the legislature* defines the three systems.

- One person can hold both roles (US president) or they can be split (UK monarch + PM). The **executive–legislative relationship** is the key variable.
- **Legislatures**: **unicameral** (one house) vs **bicameral** (two — the upper house usually represents states/regions; standard in federal systems). Legislatures are *more powerful in presidential systems* than in parliamentary ones — because of separation of powers, **a legislator can't also sit in the cabinet**, so members have **no ministerial promotion to earn from the executive** and stay independent. (*In a parliamentary system, ministers ARE MPs, so ambitious MPs toe the party line to be promoted into the cabinet → a weaker, executive-dependent legislature. Note: this is about chasing cabinet (minister) posts, not re-election to one's own seat — every legislator chases that.*)

| Parliamentarism — the Westminster model (*most emphasised*)

Core: executive and legislature are **fused** — parliament elects the chief executive (**PM**), who is *both* the majority-party leader *and* a sitting legislator. The purest **majoritarian** form.

- **PM is not directly elected:** citizens vote for parliament; the majority names the PM (in practice you know each party's candidate). A **ceremonial head of state** (monarch, or an esteemed elected "president") stays out of politics.
- **Removal = vote of no confidence** → PM resigns (party picks a new leader) *or* asks the head of state to call **new elections**; PM can also **dissolve** parliament. Usually **no fixed terms**. (No-confidence votes succeed only ~5% of the time but signal weakness.)
- **Power depends on the party system:** a disciplined single majority makes the PM "*the most powerful democratic executive in the world*" (legislation passes almost automatically). **No majority → coalition government**, small parties become **veto players**, stability drops (Sweden 2018: 133 days to form a government).
- **Cabinet** of ministers (must be MPs); in coalitions the PM must share out "portfolios" — the cabinet is the main policy-bargaining site and a check on the PM.

Presidentialism — the separation of powers

Core: executive and legislature are **elected separately with separate powers** (separation of powers, Montesquieu). The defining feature is *separation*, not that one person is both head of state & government.

- **President is directly elected** and serves a **fixed term**; branches generally **can't remove each other** (only a hard **impeachment**). This builds in **institutional veto players** — lawmaking needs *both* president and legislative majority → checks & balances, but **gridlock** (esp. under divided government).
- **Cabinet** is freely appointed (often non-legislators, any party), subject to legislative consent — but it's a **less important** body than in parliamentary systems. The **legislature is typically more powerful** than in parliamentary systems.
- **Coalitional presidentialism:** with fragmented legislatures the president must build an informal party coalition and act "a little like a PM" (**Brazil** is the classic case).

Semi-presidentialism — the hybrid

Core: executive power is **split** between a **directly elected president** (head of state, with real powers) and a **PM** (head of government, backed by the parliamentary majority, appointed by the president, removable by no-confidence).

- Legislation needs the president's signature **and** PM/majority support; the powers must be **clearly divided** (often unclear in practice). Originated in **France, 1958 (de Gaulle)**.
- **Cohabitation:** president and legislative majority from **different parties** → president appoints an opposing-party PM (French norm: president runs foreign policy, PM runs domestic). Limits presidential power but can cause gridlock.
- **Elgie's key question:** *can the president dismiss the PM?* If **yes** → unstable, democracy endangered (**Russia**); if **no** → more power-sharing, no less stable than parliamentarism.

★ The core comparison — parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential

Core: learn this table cold — it's the centre of the lecture and the exam.

Feature	Parliamentary	Presidential	Semi-presidential
Powers	Fused (exec from legislature)	Separated (elected independently)	Split executive (pres + PM)
Head of state / govt	Separate (monarch/ceremonial pres + PM)	Same person (president)	President (HoS, real powers) + PM (HoG)
Executive chosen by	Parliament (majority names PM)	Directly elected	President directly elected; PM by parliament
Terms	Usually no fixed term	Fixed term	Fixed presidential term; PM depends on parliament
How executive is removed	<u>Vote of no confidence</u> (+ PM can dissolve parliament)	Only impeachment (hard)	PM by no-confidence; president fixed
Veto players	Few (majoritarian)	Built-in (pres + legislature)	Depends (cohabitation adds them)
Classic cases	UK, Germany, India	USA, Brazil	France, Russia

- **Accountability:** parliamentarism = clearest **vertical** (voters know whom to blame) but weak **horizontal** under a single majority; presidentialism = strong **horizontal** (separation) but can hurt policymaking.
- **Policymaking (Samuels):** presidential systems **change the status quo less** and more slowly. *Illustration:* **Thatcher (UK) reshaped economic policy far more than Reagan (US)** despite similar aims — she had a compliant majority; he faced a Democratic Congress.

The stability debate — Linz's "Perils of Presidentialism"

Core: Linz (1990): presidentialism is more crisis-prone because of three flaws; but critics say the *society*, not the institution, is the real problem.

- **Linz's three perils:** ① **dual legitimacy** (two independently elected branches, no democratic tie-breaker) • ② **winner-take-all** presidents over-read their mandate and won't compromise • ③ **inflexible fixed terms** (a failing president can't be removed). Danger peaks for *new* democracies under **coalitional presidentialism** (small presidential party + fragmented legislature).
- **Counter (Cheibub 2007):** presidential systems just "*tend to exist in societies where democracies of any type are likely to be unstable.*" Semi-presidentialism is empirically **no less stable than parliamentarism** — if the president can't override the legislature or sack the PM.

Judiciary

Core: courts interpret law and, via **judicial review**, can strike laws as unconstitutional — making them a **veto player** and a check on the majority (the "why should unelected judges decide?" problem). Only real if **institutionalised**.

- **Two legal families → two review types: common law** (Britain + colonies incl. US; judges follow **precedent**) → **decentralised + concrete** review (*any* court can rule on constitutionality, but only inside a real case); **code law** (Roman/Napoleon; written code only, precedent ignored; French/Iberian colonies) → **centralised + abstract** review (one special **constitutional court**, which can rule on a law in the abstract).
- **Why let unelected judges override elected majorities?** Defenders: legislatures aren't perfectly representative either; judges are *appointed by elected officials* (Dahl 1957: justices sit within the ruling

coalition); courts check the other branches and *claim* to protect minorities (though studies find they more often side with the powerful).

- "Judicialisation of politics" (Tate & Vallinder) — courts pulled into ever more political questions; "one of the most significant trends" of recent government, as many actors turn courts into a **veto point**.
- **Independence depends on informal factors + legitimacy**: a **fragmented, competitive** political system gives courts room; judges' own beliefs matter; and because courts command neither army nor purse, hard-won **legitimacy** is what makes review real. *Example: Brazil's Supreme Federal Tribunal (STF)* grew confident enough to help impeach presidents and drove the *Lava Jato* anti-corruption probe — but code-law **abstract review** lets ~70,000 cases/year flood in (≈90% decided by a single judge), making it a clogged veto point.

Bureaucracy

Core: every state needs a merit-based, law-bound bureaucracy — but unelected officials with expertise create a **principal-agent problem** (agents pursue their own interests → inefficiency or corruption).

- **Professionalisation** (merit appointment) replaced **patronage** and gives bureaucrats **expertise = their own independent power** — which is exactly what creates the principal-agent gap (agents may expand budgets/turf, or take bribes).
- **Iron triangle** — a cosy, closed policy loop of **bureaucrats + legislators + business** in one sector that serves the insiders and keeps everyone else out (see the Japan case: iron triangles + *amakudari*).
- Controls: **political appointees** (US ~6–8 per department; UK ~2 per ministry), specific legislation, **legislative oversight** (committees, hearings, budgets), courts — none perfect. **New Public Management (NPM)** (Reagan/Thatcher, 1980s): privatise, add competition, "customer satisfaction," flatten hierarchies — a UK 30-year study found a 1/3 staff cut but **slightly higher costs and slightly worse, less-fair service**.
- **Corruption**: two types — **bribery + rent-seeking** (using regulation for advantage instead of being productive); worse in **more-regulated, more-unequal** economies (rational-choice), or from postcolonial legitimacy deficits (**Ekeh's "two publics"** in Africa: a moral *primordial* public vs an amoral *civic* one). **Majoritarian** systems (clear responsibility) let voters punish it better. **Johnston's four syndromes**: *Influence Markets* (rich democracies — US, Japan) → *Elite Cartels* (middle-income — Brazil) → *Oligarchs & Clans* (Russia) → *Official Moguls* (poorest).

Federal vs unitary systems

Core: **unitary** = the centre holds sole sovereignty (local powers delegated & revocable); **federal** = sovereignty is **constitutionally shared** with subunits — a built-in way to **limit majorities and protect minorities** (more veto players).

- **Why federate**: bring government closer (big countries); divide power (bicameral upper house + judicial review); protect ethnic/religious minorities (**Belgium** = federalism + consociationalism; **541 days** to form a government in 2010).
- Real power depends on **revenue control** and **upper-house strength**, not paper rules (strong **US Senate** vs weak German **Bundesrat**). **Symmetrical** (US) vs **asymmetrical** (special powers for some units). **Devolution** = reversible decentralisation in a unitary state (UK → Scotland/Wales/N. Ireland). Riker: federalism is inherently unstable (→ centralisation or secession).
- *Examples*: **federal** = US, Germany; **unitary** = France, UK, **Denmark**. In US federalism the **national** level holds war & foreign policy, coining money, admitting new states; **states** hold schools, public welfare, local law & order (the "**Hamilton** [federal] vs **Jefferson** [states]" division).

- **Federalism is only as real as the politics behind it** (revenue + party system, not paper): **Mexico** looked federal on paper but the **PRI** centralised everything via revenue until democratisation (2000) decentralised power to governors; **India** = *centralised* federalism (the centre can redraw state borders or impose "President's Rule"), decentralising since 1989 as state parties bargain in national coalitions; **Russia** = a federal **shell** — Putin gutted regional autonomy (appointing governors from 2004; centre took ~85% of revenue). Weak institutions can even preserve **subnational authoritarianism** inside a national democracy (Gibson).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — **circle them back**. Each country shows **one system in practice** — and how the *same rules* give different results depending on the party system. Read each for: *which system · how power actually flows · the accountability/stability trade-off*.

Case	System	What it adds
<u>UK</u>	Parliamentary (Westminster)	strongest PM — until Brexit broke party discipline
<u>India</u>	Parliamentary	same rules, different outcome via the <u>party system</u>
<u>USA</u>	Presidential	<u>separation of powers</u> → gridlock; strongest legislature
<u>Brazil</u>	<u>Coalitional presidentialism</u>	strong formal powers ≠ effective power (30 parties)
<u>Russia</u>	Semi-presidential	dominant president → <u>electoral authoritarianism</u>
<u>Japan</u>	(bureaucracy)	unelected bureaucratic power (iron triangles, <i>amakudari</i>)

- **United Kingdom — Westminster parliamentarism.** With a disciplined single majority, the PM is "*the most powerful democratic executive in the world*." But **Brexit** shattered discipline: May's deal was crushed, parliament seized the agenda, 117 of her own MPs voted no-confidence, she resigned — and **Boris Johnson became PM via a ~160,000-member party vote, no national election**. → *Parliamentarism; the majority-party mechanism (not paper rules) drives PM power; removal via no-confidence + party replacement*.
- **India — same model, different result.** India copied Westminster almost exactly, yet outcomes track its party system: one-party (Congress) dominance 1947–89 made PMs *less* constrained than British ones; post-1989 **coalitions** forced constant negotiation (3 PMs in the first 30 years → 12 in the next 30). → *Identical rules → different outcomes based on party number; multipartism pushes parliamentarism toward consensus*.
- **United States — presidential separation of powers.** The Framers feared a strong executive, so the president's *formal* powers are modest (veto, appointments with Senate consent, commander-in-chief); separation of powers + weak, polarised parties → **gridlock**, the norm under divided government (Senate 60-vote rule). Contested workarounds: signing statements, executive orders. → *Presidentialism; built-in veto players; the world's most powerful legislature (Congress)*.
- **Brazil — coalitional presidentialism.** The 1988 constitution gives the president **more** formal power than the US president (decrees, line-item veto, budget monopoly) — yet ~**30 fragmented parties** (Bolsonaro's own held <10% of seats) force presidents to build **9-party coalitions**, trade pork for votes (often illegally), and still face impeachment (**Dilma Rousseff, 2016**). → *Strong formal powers ≠ effective power; the instability Linz warned of*.
- **Russia — semi-presidentialism gone dominant.** The 1993 constitution created an exceptionally strong presidency (appoints PM — reject the nominee 3× and the Duma is dissolved; **decrees with force of law**).

Putin used it to turn a weak democracy into an **electoral authoritarian regime**. → *Elgie's warning: a president who can dismiss the PM at will removes the incentive to compromise and endangers democracy.*

- **Japan — bureaucratic power.** Japan's elite bureaucracy (recruited from Tokyo University law) drove the postwar boom and often *wrote* the laws, via **iron triangles** (bureaucrats–politicians–business) and **amakudari** ("descent from heaven" — officials taking jobs in firms they'd regulated). Scandals + stagnation eroded it; Abe's 2014 reform tripled PM appointment control. → *The principal–agent problem: unelected officials wielding real power.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Executive / Legislature / Judiciary	Implements / makes / interprets the law
Head of state / Head of government	Symbolic representative / runs the government
Majoritarian / Consensus democracy	Power concentrated (few veto players) / dispersed (many)
Veto player	Actor whose agreement is needed to change policy
Vertical / Horizontal accountability	Citizens hold state accountable / institutions check each other
Parliamentarism	Exec & legislature fused; parliament elects the PM
Vote of no confidence	Parliament's vote to remove the PM/government
Presidentialism	Exec & legislature elected independently, separate powers
Separation of powers	Constitutional division of power among branches
Coalitional presidentialism	Presidential system where the president must build a party coalition
Semi-presidentialism	Executive split between elected president + PM
Cohabitation	President & PM from different parties
Judicial review	Courts can rule a law unconstitutional
Common law / Code law	Precedent-based / written-code-only
Principal–agent problem	Agent's self-interest may not match the principal's
New Public Management	1980s reform: privatise, competition, "customer" focus
Unitary / Federal	Sole central sovereignty / sovereignty shared with subunits
Symmetrical / Asymmetrical federalism	All subunits equal / some have special powers
Devolution	Reversible decentralisation in a unitary state

Exam pointers

- Reproduce the parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential comparison cold — powers (fused/separated/split), how the executive is **chosen** and **removed**, term length, veto players, a case each.
- Explain parliamentarism (fusion, PM, no-confidence, dissolution) and presidentialism (separation, fixed terms, impeachment, gridlock) as opposite answers to *how executive power is checked*.

- Use **Lijphart's majoritarian ↔ consensus** + **veto players** to place any system, and **vertical vs horizontal accountability** to evaluate it.
- Deploy **Linz's "Perils of Presidentialism"** (dual legitimacy · winner-take-all · fixed terms) *and* the Cheibub counter — the set-piece stability debate.
- Show that **rules ≠ outcomes**: UK vs India (party system) and Thatcher vs Reagan (policymaking) are the go-to illustrations.
- Know **federal vs unitary** (+ devolution) as a majority-limiting / minority-protecting device.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 4 (systems of government).

Quotable / memorable

- Linz's famous article: "**The Perils of Presidentialism**" (1990). Cheibub's rebuttal: presidential systems "*tend to exist in societies where democracies of any type are likely to be unstable.*"
- The British PM with a solid majority is "*often called the most powerful democratic executive in the world.*"
- **Kenya (2013)** switched from a British-style **parliamentary** to a US-style **presidential** system with its new constitution — a live natural experiment.

Striking numbers

- **Belgium 2010**: a world-record 541 days to form a government; **Sweden 2018**: 133 days.
- Votes of no confidence **succeed ~5% of the time**.
- **Boris Johnson** became PM chosen by **fewer than 160,000** Conservative members — no national election.
- **India**: 3 PMs in 1947–77 → **12** in 1977–2007 (multipartism = less stability).
- **Brazil**: 30 parties in the Chamber; presidential coalitions average **9 parties**; **60% of Congress under indictment** in 2016.
- **US Senate**: representatives of just over **10%** of the population can block a bill (60-vote rule); state representation ratio ≈ **66:1**.
- **Semi-presidentialism** spread from **10 (1990) → 52 (2018)** systems; 16 are former French/Portuguese colonies.
- **Federal** countries ≈ **25**, but hold **>40% of the world's population**; 7 of the 10 largest countries by area are federal.

Thinkers to name-drop

- Separation of powers ← **Montesquieu** · semi-presidentialism ← **France 1958 / de Gaulle** · code law ← **Napoleon** · majoritarian/consensus ← **Lijphart** · veto players ← **Tsebelis** · vertical/horizontal accountability ← **O'Donnell** · federalism-as-bargain ← **Riker**.

Lecture 5: Participation and Representation (FK)

Required reading: OD ch. 6 (*Institutions of Participation and Representation*)

Theme of the lecture: Why do some citizens participate while others don't? Why are some interests represented while others aren't? We examine how different institutions — specifically electoral and party systems — shape political participation and representation.

OD Ch. 6 — Institutions of Participation and Representation

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 6.

Chapter résumé

Looks at the three institutions through which democracies channel **participation and representation** — **electoral systems**, **parties/party systems**, and **civil society (interest groups)** — and asks which best represent ordinary and marginalised citizens. It opens with *why anyone participates at all* (a **collective-action problem**), then its analytic core: how **electoral systems** (plurality/SMD · majoritarian · PR · mixed) convert votes into seats and thereby shape the **number of parties (Duverger's Law)**, proportionality, stability, and the representation of women & minorities. It classifies **party systems**, surveys how parties mobilise (programmatic / clientelist / populist) amid a "crisis of party democracy," contrasts **pluralist vs neocorporatist** interest-group systems, and closes on the master **trade-off (Powell): diverse representation ⇔ clear accountability**.

★ The heart of the chapter: institutions decide who participates and whose interests get represented. The **electoral system** is the master lever — **SMD/plurality** squeezes politics toward *two parties + clear accountability but wasted votes*; **PR** opens it to *many parties + proportional, diverse representation but coalition instability* (Duverger's Law). Underneath sits one unavoidable **trade-off (Powell): broad representation ⇔ clear accountability/governability**.

The red thread. Two questions run through the chapter. ① **Why participate (or not)?** — voting is individually "irrational" (a **collective-action problem**), so *institutions* raise or lower the cost (PR & simple systems → higher turnout). ② **Whose interests get represented?** — the **electoral system** → **party system** → **interest-group system** chain decides. For any case ask: **how do votes become seats · how many parties result · who gets left out (small parties, women, minorities) · and what's traded off (representation vs accountability)?**

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- The electoral-system menu: **SMD plurality (FPTP)** · majoritarian (two-round / alternative vote) · **proportional representation (PR)** · mixed/semiproportional.
- **Duverger's Law** — SMD → two parties; PR → multiparty.
- **Party systems** — dominant-party · two-party · multiparty; **sociological** (cleavages) vs **institutional** (electoral rules) origins.
- **Mobilisation types** — programmatic · patronage/clientelist · populist.
- **Interest groups: pluralism** (many, neutral state — US) vs **neocorporatism** (few peak associations bargain with the state — Germany).
- The **Powell trade-off** — representation/participation ⇔ accountability/governability.

Section-by-section main points

Lecture frame (FK). The lecture opens by asking *what representation even is* (**Pitkin**), then works through the institutions that produce it — **electoral systems** → **party systems** → **civil society** — and closes with **case studies** (UK, Germany, Japan, Brazil).

| What is representation? — Pitkin's four views

Core: before asking *how* institutions represent, ask *what "representation" means*. **Hanna Pitkin** (*The Concept of Representation*, 1967) distinguishes **four** senses:

- **Formalistic** — the institutional arrangement that **authorises** a representative and holds them **accountable** (elections = the "before" and "after" of representing).
- **Descriptive** — the representative **resembles** the represented (shares gender, ethnicity, class) — "**standing for**" (the case for **quotas** / descriptive representation).
- **Symbolic** — the representative **stands for** the represented symbolically (a leader/flag people identify with).
- **Substantive** — the representative **acts in the interests** of the represented — "**acting for**" (the **delegate** [follow instructions] vs **trustee** [own judgment] debate).
- *Why it matters:* the electoral systems below are really machines for producing one kind of representation or another — **PR** boosts **descriptive** representation (more women/minorities); **SMD** emphasises the **formalistic** local link.

| Why participate? — the collective-action problem

Core: voting is individually "**irrational**" (Downs) — one vote rarely decides anything — so participation is a **collective-action problem** that *institutions* must overcome.

- People vote anyway for **expressive/solidaristic** reasons, charismatic leaders, and to avoid the **emotional cost** of not participating (guilt, exclusion).
- **Institutions shape turnout:** complex systems depress it among the less-educated; **PR/mixed systems raise it** (fewer "wasted votes"); parties & interest groups lower the cost of finding and acting on your interests.

| Electoral systems — *the core of the chapter* ★

Core: the electoral system is the master lever — *on what basis are you represented* (a **district**, a **party/idea**, or a **group**), and *how do votes become seats*?

System	Votes → seats	Parties (Duverger)	Proportionality	Turnout	Women/minorities	Cases
SMD plurality (FPTP)	most votes in each district wins (no majority needed)	two parties	low (wasted votes)	lower	worse	<u>UK</u> , <u>US</u> , <u>India</u>
Majoritarian (two-round / AV ranked-choice)	need 50%+1 → runoff or reallocate	~two blocs	low-medium	—	—	France
Proportional (PR) — <u>closed/open list</u>	seats = vote share (national/large districts, a threshold)	multiparty	high	higher	better	<u>Israel</u> , <u>Brazil</u> (open)
Mixed / semiproportional	SMD seats + party-list PR	multiparty	high (compensatory , <u>Germany</u>) / medium (noncompensatory , <u>Japan</u>)	higher	—	Germany, Japan

- **SMD/FPTP: strengths** — strong voter-representative link, single-party government (efficient, accountable); defenders also invoke **virtual representation** (co-partisans elected in *other* districts speak for you). *Weaknesses* — **wasted votes**, **disproportionality** (a party can win many seats on ~35% pluralities; a broad-but-thin party wins almost none), gerrymandering, fewer women/minorities. (*Empirically the SMD "closer link" is weak — Curtice & Shively found no real advantage in voter-rep contact.*)
- **PR: strengths** — few wasted votes, **higher turnout**, far **more women & minorities** (lists + quotas), more information/positions, more egalitarian policy (Orellana). *Weaknesses* — no identifiable individual rep, **coalition instability**, small extremist parties gain outsized leverage; **Kedar**: PR voters even vote for *more extreme* parties on purpose, expecting post-election compromise to pull policy back to the middle.
 - **Closed vs open list** — *who decides the order within a party's seats?* Under PR you vote for a **party**, which then fills its won seats from a ranked **list of candidates**. The two variants differ in *who sets that rank*:
 - **Closed list**: the **party** fixes the order in advance; you vote only for the party, and if it wins *n* seats they go to the top *n* names on the party's list. → **more party control, party discipline, and easy use of quotas** (a party can guarantee women high spots), but voters can't pick the *individual*. (*e.g. Israel.*)
 - **Open list**: you vote for the party **and** for a **specific candidate** within it; the candidates' *own* vote totals decide who gets the party's seats. → **more voter choice over individuals**, but it makes candidates compete against their *own* party-mates → **weaker, more personalist parties**. (*e.g. Brazil — a big reason its parties are so fragmented and weak.*)
- **Mixed**: two ballots (a district candidate + a party list) — blends a personal rep with proportional fairness; **Germany's compensatory** version tops seats up to full proportionality, **Japan's noncompensatory** version keeps SMD & PR separate (less proportional). **AV/ranked-choice** wastes fewer votes than FPTP (Maine 2018 elected the first US Congress seat by AV).
- **Redistribution link (Iversen & Soskice — from Lecture 4):** PR → the middle class allies with the poor → **bigger welfare states**; majoritarian → middle allies with the rich → less. A key reason electoral

systems shape *policy*, not just seats (the Sweden vs US welfare puzzle).

| Duverger's Law — and its limits

Core: SMD/plurality → two parties (small parties get squeezed out and voters stop "wasting" votes on them); PR → multiparty.

- **But not deterministic:** it holds in *established* democracies; in **new/diverse** democracies voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists), so FPTP can still produce many parties (Moser & Scheiner) — see **India**. And it can break even in old democracies (**France 2017**: Macron's one-year-old party upended a near-two-party system).

| Party systems

Core: classify by **number & strength**: **dominant-party** (S. Africa ANC — won every election) · **two-party** (US, UK) · **multiparty** (Italy — coalitions required).

- **Where party systems come from — two explanations:**
 - **Sociological:** parties reflect social **cleavages** — an economic **capital vs labour** split everywhere, *plus* a religious split in some places. Where *both* are salient → **multiparty**; where only economic → **two-party**.
 - **Institutional (Duverger):** rational politicians build parties to win *under the given electoral rules* — SMD squeezes toward two.
- **Bridging the "chicken-and-egg":** the institutional effect holds in **established** democracies but *not* in **new** ones, where voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists, FPTP winners take seats on 20–30%) — Boix; Moser & Scheiner. **France** is the classic Duverger case (its two-round SMD pushed a fragmented system to ~two blocs, 82% of seats by 2012) — until **2017**, when Macron's one-year-old party blew it up.

| How parties mobilise — and the "crisis of party democracy"

Core: parties win support three ways — **programmatic** (ideas/ideology) · **patronage/clientelist** (material benefits for votes, via **brokers** — common in poorer/newer & statist economies) · **populist** (a personalist leader, "the people" vs "corrupt elites," crisis rhetoric, "bad manners").

- **Where parties sit — two ideology axes (FK):** the classic **economic Left–Right** (redistribution) *plus* the modern cultural **GAL–TAN** — **GAL** (Green/Alternative/Libertarian: progressive, cosmopolitan, pro-environment, individual rights) vs **TAN** (Traditional/Authoritarian/Nationalist). Today's populist/far-right parties (Farage, Salvini, AfD) mobilise mainly on the **TAN** end of this second axis.
- **Caveat on "programmatic":** **Achen & Bartels** ("folk theory" critique) argue voters mostly vote by **social identity**, not by carefully weighing ideas — so pure programmatic appeal is partly a myth.
- **Crisis of party democracy:** only ~20% trust parties (though ~80% value democracy); falling loyalty/membership/turnout, rising **electoral volatility**, single-issue/postmaterialist voting, and **far-right/anti-system** parties (nativism, post-2015 refugee crisis). Explanations: economic (globalisation, manufacturing decline); **dealignment** (voters detach from all parties) vs **realignment** (they switch); catch-all parties → "**cartel parties**" (Mair) colluding at the centre → lost efficacy.
- **US exception:** not dealignment but partisan **sorting/polarisation** (Abramowitz), racial realignment, and Trump's **status-threat** populism (Mutz 2018).

Civil society & interest groups — pluralism vs neocorporatism

Core: beyond parties, organised **interest groups** (they *don't* seek office, unlike parties) represent society — in two rival models. Groups grew sector-by-sector: first **labour, business, agriculture**, then **women/minority** groups; in divided societies, ethnic/religious groups dominate (some, like the KKK, are internally *undemocratic* — a tension for democracy).

- **Pluralism** (US): **many** competing groups, a **neutral** state; easy entry & local control, but fragmented clout — and **business is inherently privileged** (Lindblom). **Schattschneider's** famous jab: "*the flaw in the pluralist heaven is that the heavenly chorus sings with a strong upper-class accent*" — i.e. who gets organised is skewed toward the well-off.
- **Neocorporatism** / societal corporatism (Germany, N. Europe): a **few large, hierarchical peak associations** the state recognises as *the* voice of each sector negotiate **binding** deals; more influence (esp. for labour countering business) but **less participatory** (little incentive to form new groups). (*State corporatism = the mandated, authoritarian version — ch. 8.*)
- **Social-capital debate:** Putnam (*Bowling Alone*) sees civic **decline**; Skocpol adds that mass-membership bodies gave way to **managed advocacy**; critics (Dalton, "**Kicking in Groups**") reply that activity just **moved to new forms** (movements, single-issue groups).

The master trade-off (Powell)

Core: systems open to **diversity** (PR · multiparty · pluralism) maximise **representation & participation** but blur **accountability & governability**; **majoritarian** systems (FPTP · two-party) do the reverse. *There is no free lunch — every design chooses a point on this line.* The chapter's most robust finding: **PR represents women far better than SMD** (India goes further with **reserved seats**).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — **circle them back**. Each shows **one electoral/party system in action** and *who it represents vs leaves out*. Read each for: *which system · how votes became seats · who got left out*.

Case	Electoral system	Party system	What it shows
<u>UK</u>	SMD/FPTP	two-party	extreme disproportionality (UKIP 12.6% → 1 seat)
<u>Germany</u>	mixed compensatory PR	multiparty	how mixed PR lets new parties (Greens, AfD) in
<u>Japan</u>	mixed noncompensatory	dominant (LDP)	more majoritarian; Duverger working haltingly
<u>India</u>	SMD/FPTP + federal	multiparty	Duverger's limits in a diverse democracy; reserved seats
<u>Brazil</u>	open-list PR (no threshold)	fragmented	weak-party fragmentation (30 parties) + populism
<u>Israel</u>	pure closed-list PR	hyper-multiparty	PR instability under extreme diversity

- **UK — SMD/FPTP.** The paradigm two-party FPTP system: modest vote margins → big seat majorities → single-party government. But it's wildly **disproportional** — in **2015, UKIP won 12.6% of the vote → 1 seat**, while the **SNP won fewer votes → 56 seats** (geographically concentrated in Scotland). → *SMD/FPTP → disproportionality, wasted votes, majoritarian governance.*
- **Germany — mixed compensatory PR.** Designed after Weimar with a **5% threshold** + compensatory mixed PR → a stable multiparty system. The **Greens (1983)** got in *because* the semiproportional system let them clear the threshold (unlike Britain's Greens); by **2017** the two big parties fell to a record **54%**, and the

far-right **AfD** won its first seats. → *Mixed PR sustains a multiparty system and lets new/ideological parties gain representation.*

- **Japan — mixed noncompensatory.** The **LDP dominated 1955–93** via factions & clientelism; the **1994 reform** (300 SMD + 180 PR, *noncompensatory*) pushed toward two parties — the **DPJ won 308/480 in 2009**, but the **LDP swept back in 2012** ("lucky, not popular" — a split opposition). → *Noncompensatory mixed = more majoritarian than Germany; Duverger's Law working haltingly.*
- **India — FPTP in a diverse federation.** FPTP "should" give two parties, but **huge diversity + federalism** yields many *state-level* two-party fights that aggregate into a **national multiparty** system (parties: 50 in 1952 → 342 in 2009). **BJP (Modi) 2014: 31% of the vote → 52% of seats** under FPTP. **120 of ~600 seats** are **reserved** for lower castes/tribes. → *Duverger's limits in a new/diverse democracy; reserved-seat representation.*
- **Brazil — open-list PR, no threshold.** No incentive for intra-party cooperation → extreme fragmentation (**30 parties by 2018**) and weak, local parties (a third of legislators switched parties 1989–95). Recession + the "car wash" scandal → mass protests → **Rousseff impeached (2016)** → outsider populist **Bolsonaro won 2018** atop a tiny party. → *Open-list PR's weak-party fragmentation + accountability failure + populism.*
- **Israel — pure PR.** The whole country is **one district**, a 120-seat Knesset, **3.25% threshold** → ~a dozen parties win; governments = a big party + 3–6 small ones, lasting ~2 years; **2019 produced three elections in one year.** → *PR's instability under extreme diversity — the cost of maximal proportionality.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Collective-action problem	Individuals rationally don't act (vote) though all suffer if none do
Electoral system	Legal mechanism translating votes into offices/seats
Single-member district (SMD)	Each district elects one representative
Plurality / FPTP	Most votes wins (no majority needed)
Majoritarian / Alternative vote	Winner needs 50%+1 (runoff / ranked-choice)
Proportional representation (PR)	Seats = vote share (national/large districts + a threshold)
<u>Closed-list PR</u>	Vote for a party; the party sets the candidate order (party control, quotas) — Israel
<u>Open-list PR</u>	Vote for party and a candidate; candidates' own votes set the order (voter choice, weaker parties) — Brazil
Mixed / semiproportional	SMD seats + party-list PR (compensatory / noncompensatory)
Duverger's Law	SMD → two parties; PR → multiparty
Party system	Number & strength of parties (dominant / two-party / multiparty)
Programmatic / patronage / populist mobilisation	Win support by ideas / material rewards / anti-elite personalism
Interest-group pluralism	Many competing groups, neutral state (US)
Neocorporatism	Few peak associations bargain binding deals with the state (Germany)
Peak association	Body uniting a whole sector to negotiate with the state
Social capital	Networks + norms of reciprocity underpinning civil society
Powell trade-off	Diverse representation ⇔ clear accountability

Exam pointers

- Reproduce the electoral-systems comparison cold — how each converts votes→seats, its effect on the **number of parties (Duverger)**, **proportionality**, **turnout**, and **women/minorities** — with a case each.
- Answer both spine questions: **why participate** (collective-action problem; institutions shape turnout) and **whose interests get represented** (electoral → party → interest-group chain).
- State Duverger's Law and its limits (India; France 2017).
- Contrast pluralism vs neocorporatism (US vs Germany) for interest representation.
- Land on the Powell trade-off (representation ⇔ accountability) and the robust finding that **PR represents women better**; use Iversen & Soskice to link PR → more redistribution.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 5 (participation & representation).

Quotable

- Schattschneider (1942): "*Modern democracy is unthinkable save in terms of parties.*"
- Downs (1957): for most people, voting is technically **irrational** — the seed of the collective-action problem.
- Powell's master **trade-off**: representation/participation $\rightleftharpoons$ accountability/governability.

Striking numbers

- **UK 2015**: UKIP won **12.6%** → **1 seat**; the SNP won *fewer* votes → **56 seats**.
- **US 2012 House**: in the ten most gerrymandered states, Republicans won **7% more votes but 76% more seats**.
- **Israel**: whole country = one district; **3.25% threshold**; **three elections in one year (2019)**; governments last ~2 years.
- **India**: parties grew **50 (1952) → 342 (2009)**; **120 of ~600** seats reserved for lower castes/tribes; BJP 2014 = **31% of vote → 52% of seats**.
- **Brazil 2018**: its most fragmented legislature ever — **30 parties**.
- **Women in legislatures**: Nordic countries lead at **42.5%**; US House only **23.4%** (2019). Robust finding: **PR elects more women than SMD**.
- Only ~**20%** of citizens trust parties, though ~**80%** call democracy "a very good thing."
- **Maine 2018**: first US Congress seat decided by **ranked-choice** — Golden won 50.5–49.5 after trailing on the first count.

Memorable

- **France**: the top two parties held **56% of Assembly seats (1973) → 82% (2012)** — then the system **collapsed in 2017** with Macron's one-year-old party.
- ~**60 countries** used FPTP in 2019 — almost all former British colonies; **Belarus** was the only continental-European one.
- The social-capital debate in two titles: Putnam's *Bowling Alone* vs its rebuttal "**Kicking in Groups**."

Lecture 6: Institutions and Institutionalisms (AUW)

Required reading: Hall & Taylor (1996), *Political Science and the Three New Institutionalisms* • Busemeyer & Thelen (2020), *Institutional Sources of Business Power* (an HI example)

Theme of the lecture: the role of **institutions and structures** in political processes — how institutions shape the behaviour of political actors, and what drives institutional **change vs continuity** — focusing on the rational-choice (RCI), historical (HI), and sociological (SI) variants of **New Institutionalism** (with path dependence and institutional legacies as central concepts).

Lecture frame (AUW) — the essentials before the three schools

Core: institutions ≠ organizations. Institutions are the **rules/norms that enable or constrain actors**; organizations are **groups of actors**. (*Ayca's example: the Social Democratic Party is an organization; the constitutional & legal rules, its internal statutes, and the unwritten norms governing it — e.g. can an MP defy the leadership and keep their job? — are institutions.*)

- **The debate it settles: structure vs agency** — *what explains a political outcome?* New Institutionalism is the "revised" answer (behavioralism → institutionalist critique → New Institutionalism): **institutions structure outcomes**.
- **Why study institutions?** They have **profound political consequences** — e.g. electoral system → party system (majoritarian → two-party; PR → multiparty — Lectures 4–5); parental-benefit design → labour-market gender equality.
- **The definition of "institution" widens across the three schools** — this is the key organising idea:

School	What counts as an institution
RCI (narrowest)	"Rules of the game" — constitutions, laws, regulations, court decisions
HI (middle)	The above + procedures, routines, norms, conventions (how things are done; SOPs)
SI (broadest)	All the above + symbol systems, cognitive scripts, moral/discursive templates — "frames of meaning" (role of the state, national identity, patriarchy, institutional racism...)

Hall & Taylor (1996) — The Three New Institutionalisms

Chapter résumé

Hall & Taylor show that "the new institutionalism" is **not one theory but three** — **rational-choice (RCI)**, **historical (HI)**, and **sociological (SI)** institutionalism — which arose in the 1980s–90s (all reacting against 1960s–70s **behavioralism**) yet developed **independently**, "paint quite different pictures of the political world," and rarely cited each other. They compare the three on **two questions fundamental to any institutional analysis**: (1) **how institutions relate to behaviour**, and (2) **how institutions originate and change**. Their verdict: none is wrong — each captures a **partial truth** — so they call for **cross-fertilisation**.

★ **The heart of the reading**: three schools answer the same question — *how do institutions shape political behaviour and outcomes?* — very differently. **RCI**: institutions are rules that structure **strategic interaction** among fixed-preference utility-maximisers ("calculus"). **HI**: institutions distribute **power** unevenly and lock in **paths** over time (eclectic). **SI**: institutions are **cultural frames of meaning** that constitute actors' very identities and preferences ("cultural"). The exam task: fill in the comparison table and use it to build *three competing explanations* for one outcome.

The red thread. Everything reduces to **two cross-cutting approaches** (Hall & Taylor's own device): the **calculus approach** (actors strategically maximise; institutions give certainty about others' behaviour; persist as a **Nash equilibrium**) vs the **cultural approach** (actors interpret via worldviews; institutions provide moral/cognitive templates; persist because **taken-for-granted**). **RCI = pure calculus** · **SI = pure cultural** · **HI = both**. For any theory ask: *calculus or cultural — and how does that answer "how do actors behave / what do institutions do / why do they persist"?*

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- The three schools: RCI · HI · SI (+ the widening definition of "institution").
- Calculus vs cultural approaches — the master framework for *how institutions affect behaviour*.
- RCI toolkit: strategic interaction · collective-action dilemmas · gains from exchange · Nash equilibrium.
- HI toolkit: power asymmetries · path dependence · critical junctures · unintended consequences.
- SI toolkit: frames of meaning · logic of appropriateness · isomorphism · legitimacy.

Section-by-section main points

| The two archetypes — calculus vs cultural

Core: any institutionalism must answer three questions — *how do actors behave? what do institutions do? why do they persist?* — and there are two archetypal answer-sets.

	Calculus approach (→ RCI)	Cultural approach (→ SI)
How do actors behave?	Instrumental, strategic utility-maximisers ; preferences given exogenously	Behaviour bounded by a worldview ; satisficers ; choice depends on <i>interpretation</i>
What do institutions do?	Provide certainty about others (information, enforcement); shape expectations	Provide moral/cognitive templates ; shape identities & preferences themselves
Why do they persist?	They're a <u>Nash equilibrium</u> — deviating makes you worse off	Taken-for-granted ; one actor can't change a collective convention

HI is eclectic — it uses *both*.

| ★ The three institutionalisms compared (*the exam table — from the screenshot*)

Core: memorise this. To answer "why did outcome X happen?", read *across a row* for three competing explanations.

Dimension	Rational Choice (RCI)	Historical (HI)	Sociological (SI)
Definition of institutions	Rules/procedures that structure strategic interaction (narrow)	Formal/informal procedures, routines, norms, conventions embedded in the polity/economy (tied to organizations)	Symbol systems, cognitive scripts, moral templates — "frames of meaning" (dissolves the institution/culture line)
Example they study	US Congress (committees, rules of procedure)	Cross-national public policy (welfare states, labour, corporatism)	Organizational forms & their diffusion (why education ministries worldwide look alike)
Institutions ↔ behaviour	Calculus	Eclectic (both)	Cultural
How do actors behave?	Fixed exogenous preferences ; instrumental, strategic maximisers	Both strategic <i>and</i> worldview-shaped (strategies can ossify into worldviews)	Socially-constituted interpreters; " logic of appropriateness " — what's "rational" is itself socially constituted
What do institutions do?	Structure strategic interaction; provide info/enforcement → reduce uncertainty, enable gains from exchange ; solve collective-action problems	Structure conflict — privilege some interests, demobilise others; distribute power unevenly	Confer meaning & legitimacy ; constitute actors' identities & preferences
Why do they persist?	They're a Nash equilibrium (deviation costs you)	Path dependence — groups develop interests "costly to shift"	Taken-for-granted ; can't be changed by one individual
How/why do they change?	Deductive; voluntary agreement / competitive selection (<i>weak on change — the "equilibrium paradox"</i>)	Critical junctures (crisis/war) → branching points ; otherwise path-dependent	Adopt new templates for legitimacy (not efficiency); borrowing/diffusion ; can even be <i>dysfunctional</i>
Particular focus	Strategic interaction; collective-action dilemmas; gains from exchange	Power asymmetries; path dependence; unintended consequences; ideas	Legitimacy; culture; isomorphism
Key concepts	transaction costs, principal-agent, Nash equilibrium, gains from exchange	path dependence, critical junctures, unintended consequences, "mobilization of bias"	frames of meaning, cognitive scripts, logic of appropriateness, isomorphism
Hall & Taylor's critique	Thin/"simplistic" motivation ; exogenous preferences; functionalist origins	Vague on the precise causal mechanism ; too inductive	"Bloodless" ; "action without agents" ; misses power

Rational Choice Institutionalism (RCI) — the "calculus" school

Core: institutions are **rules that structure strategic interaction** among rational, fixed-preference **utility-maximisers**; they persist because they're an **equilibrium** and are created to **capture gains from cooperation**.

- Borrows the "new economics of organization" (transaction costs, property rights, principal-agent). Politics = a series of **collective-action dilemmas** (prisoner's dilemma, tragedy of the commons); institutions solve

them by providing **information + enforcement**.

- **Exemplars:** US Congress studies — **Shepsle, Weingast; Ostrom** on common-pool resources; **North** on economic institutions.
- **Best at:** precise, generalisable theory; explaining **why institutions persist**. **Weak at:** origins/change — its explanations are **functionalist** (deduce origins from consequences — but you can't, because of unintended consequences), **intentionalist**, **voluntarist** (understates power); and the **equilibrium paradox** (if the status quo is already a Nash equilibrium, why would anyone agree to change it?).

Historical Institutionalism (HI) — power + path dependence

Core: institutions **distribute power unevenly** ("structure conflict to privilege some, demobilise others") and, once set, lock national development onto **paths** that are costly to reverse — change comes at **critical junctures**.

- Definition sits in the middle (procedures/routines/norms embedded in organizations); **eclectic** on behaviour (both calculus & cultural, integrating **ideas**). History = **long continuity punctuated by critical junctures** (triggered by crisis/war) that create **branching points**; between them, path dependence + unintended consequences dominate.
- **Exemplars:** **Immergut** (health-care reform), **Steinmo** (tax policy), **Hattam** (US labour), **Skocpol** (welfare states & state capacities); **Thelen** (how institutions evolve).
- **The most "commodious"** and realistic school, and the **pivot** between RCI and SI. **Weak at:** specifying the exact causal mechanism; too inductive to build systematic theory. (*This is the school Bussemeyer & Thelen exemplify — see below.*)

Sociological Institutionalism (SI) — culture & legitimacy

Core: institutions are **cultural frames of meaning** (symbols, scripts, templates) that don't just constrain behaviour but **constitute actors' identities and preferences**; organizations adopt practices for **legitimacy**, not efficiency.

- Dissolves the **institution/culture** boundary (a "cognitive turn"). Actors follow a "logic of appropriateness" (what's socially appropriate), not pure calculation. Explains **isomorphism** — why organizations in a field converge on the same forms "regardless of local conditions," even when **dysfunctional**.
- **Exemplars:** **Meyer & Rowan** ("myth & ceremony"), **DiMaggio & Powell** (isomorphism / the "organizational field"), **March & Olsen** (logic of appropriateness), **Dobbin, Fligstein, Soysal**.
- **Best at:** meaning, legitimacy, identity, and the inefficiencies RCI can't explain (the "waiting at a red light with no one around" point). **Weak at:** power & agency — "curiously **bloodless**," can look like "**action without agents**."

Change vs continuity — each school's answer (*AUW's deck; the Brexit test*)

Core: take one outcome (e.g. **Brexit**) and give **three competing explanations** — one per school.

School	Explains CHANGE by...	Explains CONTINUITY by...
RCI	disrupted equilibrium; actors' interests (utility-max, cost-benefit); strategic action; few veto players (or in agreement)	policy equilibrium ; many veto players (or in disagreement)
HI	critical junctures ; unintended consequences; powerful agenda-setters ; institutional inertia	path dependence ; policy lock-in ; institutional power vested in key actors
SI	societal shifts (materialism→post-materialism); a new economic paradigm (Keynesianism→neoliberalism); IR shift (multilateral→unilateral)	deep taken-for-granted structures; national identities ; nested power structures

Hall & Taylor's conclusion — cross-fertilise

Core: each school reveals a **genuine but partial** dimension of behaviour, so they should **borrow from each other** rather than stay in isolation.

- Who does what: **RCI** = precision & persistence (weak on motivation/change); **HI** = power & history (weak on mechanism); **SI** = meaning & legitimacy (weak on power/agency). HI is the **bridge** — its arguments translate into RCI terms yet open toward SI (actors pick institutions strategically, but "from a menu made historically available").
- Emerging syntheses they cite:** **Kreps** (corporate culture as an efficient supplement to monitoring); **Garrett & Weingast** (norms/ideas as "**focal points**" that select among multiple equilibria); **Scharpf** ("decision rules" [incentives] + "decision styles" [beliefs about appropriate behaviour]); **Bates & Weingast** (strategic interaction as **signalling games** needing cultural context). (*Caveat: they don't claim a full synthesis is yet possible — "there is much to be said for tenacious debate."*)

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Institution vs organization	Rules/norms that constrain actors vs groups of actors
Calculus vs cultural approach	Strategic maximising vs interpretation-by-worldview
RCI / HI / SI	Rational-choice / historical / sociological institutionalism
Nash equilibrium	Why institutions persist for RCI (deviation costs you)
Collective-action dilemma	Individually rational, collectively bad (RCI's image of politics)
Path dependence	Past choices lock development onto costly-to-reverse paths (HI)
Critical juncture / branching point	Crisis moment when big institutional change sets a new path (HI)
Unintended consequences	Ubiquitous — why you "can't deduce origins from consequences"
Mobilization of bias	Institutions distribute power unevenly (HI)
Logic of appropriateness	Act on what's socially appropriate, not calculation (SI)
Isomorphism	Organizations in a field converge on the same form (SI)
Frames of meaning	Symbol systems/scripts that constitute action (SI's institutions)

Exam pointers

- Reproduce the RCI/HI/SI comparison table — the exam's whole point (Ayca's table).
- Nail **institution** $\neq$ **organization** and the **widening definition** (RCI rules $\rightarrow$ SI frames of meaning).
- Use the calculus vs cultural distinction to explain *how* each school links institutions to behaviour.
- Run the change-vs-continuity table on one outcome (Brexit): **three competing explanations** (RCI equilibrium/interests • HI critical juncture/path dependence • SI paradigm/identity shift).
- Know each school's **signature critique** (RCI thin motivation • HI vague mechanism • SI bloodless/no power).

Busemeyer & Thelen (2020) — Institutional Sources of Business Power (*an HI example*)

Chapter résumé

An exemplary **Historical-Institutionalist study**: where does **business power** come from? The standard split is **structural** power (business's privileged position as investor — the exit/investment threat) vs **instrumental** power (lobbying, donations). Busemeyer & Thelen add a third, **institutional business power** — power that "results when state actors **delegate public functions to private business actors**" and, "over time, through **policy feedback and lock-in effects**," produces an **asymmetrical dependence of the state on business**. They prove it in **education/skill formation** (a "quintessentially public" area where you'd *least* expect business power) across **Germany, Sweden, and the USA**.

★ **The heart of the reading**: business power isn't a fixed feature of capitalism — it's **built by institutions over time**. Once the state hands parts of a public service to private actors, **policy feedback + lock-in** make the state **dependent** on them and the change **near-impossible to reverse**. This is *classic HI*: power asymmetries compounding through path dependence.

Section-by-section main points

| The argument — a third kind of business power

Core: to structural + instrumental power, add **institutional business power** — endogenous to **past policy-design choices**, not a generic feature of capitalism.

- **Three types**: **structural** (investor's exit threat — Lindblom) • **instrumental** (lobbying/donations) • **institutional** (entrenched role in delivering a **public function**). They act as "**communicating vessels**."
- **Two conditions** set how strong institutional power is: **(1) the credibility of business's exit threat** and **(2) the depth of state dependence** (has the state lost the capacity to provide the service itself?). Both high $\rightarrow$ power strongest.
- Once entrenched, institutional power grants business insider "**quiet politics**" access (Culpepper) — so it needs far less *overt* lobbying. The three cases are deliberately "**most different**" (Esping-Andersen's three welfare worlds $\times$ Hall & Soskice's *varieties of capitalism*) to show a **common dynamic despite maximally different systems**.

Three mechanisms → three countries

Core: the *same* dynamic (state shares a public function → feedback entrenches business → lock-in) plays out three ways across maximally different systems.

Country	Mechanism	What happened
Germany	Delegation	state consciously shares regulatory space with employers (dual apprenticeship training)
Sweden	Deregulation	state retreats from provision (school vouchers / for-profit "free schools")
USA	Accretion	private actors <i>invite themselves in</i> (venture philanthropy, charter schools)

- **Germany — Delegation (dual vocational training).** Firm-based apprenticeships rest on **employer voluntarism** (~500,000 youths/year, ≈ the number entering university). **Highest** institutional power: both state dependence *and* exit threat are high. Twice (**1970s; red-green 1998**) governments floated a statist **training levy** + school-based alternative; both times employers threatened to cut training places and the government **backed down** — and by the 2000s **unions & Social Democrats had reversed** to defending firm-based training (preference **conversion via feedback**). → *Delegation + lock-in + preference change = HI.*
- **Sweden — Deregulation (school vouchers).** Early-1990s reforms broke a near-total **public monopoly**; public money now funds private "independent" schools. By 2014 **ten corporations held 30% of the market** (biggest: AcadeMedia, owned by VC firm EQT); ~85% of voucher schools are **for-profit** — a "welfare-industrial complex." The **2016 Reepalu** profit-cap proposal died after providers threatened to shut down; Reepalu himself: "*we'd be in an easier situation if this had been introduced twenty years ago*" (**lock-in spoken aloud**). → *Deregulation + self-reinforcing feedback (even unions flipped pro-privatisation).*
- **USA — Accretion (venture philanthropy & charters).** Wealthy donors (**Gates, Broad, Walton**) "invite themselves" into education, funding charter schools/CMOs. **High exit threat, lower state dependence** (private funds *supplement*). Charters ≈6% of US enrolment but **~95% in post-Katrina New Orleans**; **Gates ranked the most influential individual in US education policy — ahead of the Secretary of Education.** In the 2014 de Blasio vs **Eva Moskowitz** fight, Walton-funded groups bused parents to Albany and Gov. Cuomo vowed "*We will save charter schools!*" → *Accretion — instrumental power converting into entrenched institutional power.*

Why it's HI — and how RCI/SI would differ

- **HI hallmarks:** power runs through the whole study (asymmetric state↔business dependence tilting "over time"); **historical legacies** (each country a longitudinal narrative); **path dependence & lock-in** ("reclaiming lost territory becomes more difficult over time"); **policy feedback; critical junctures** (German 1982 government change; **Hurricane Katrina** enabling New Orleans's charterisation).
- **RCI would say:** business power = a credible **exit/holdup threat** in a principal-agent game; delegation persists because it's **efficient** (lowers state costs) — but static RCI misses the *temporal tilt* and the change in actors' preferences.
- **SI would say:** private provision spreads because it becomes **legitimate/taken-for-granted** (Germans see employer involvement as "an asset"; Swedes internalise "free choice"; Gates's role "taken for granted") — an NPM/"choice" **template diffusing** (isomorphism) — but SI under-weights the raw **power** the authors foreground.

Exam pointers

- Use this as your **worked HI example**: name the mechanism per country (**Delegation/Germany** · **Deregulation/Sweden** · **Accretion/US**) and show **power** + **path dependence** + **lock-in**.
- Define **institutional business power** vs structural vs instrumental, and its **two conditions** (exit threat + state dependence).
- Be ready to **re-explain the same outcome in RCI and SI terms** (Ayca's exercise).

Informal institutions (*AUW coda*)

Core: informal institutions = the "informal rules of the game" — "*socially shared rules, usually unwritten, created, communicated and enforced outside officially sanctioned channels.*" They can matter as much as formal ones (esp. in weak states) — and are **not necessarily undemocratic**.

- **Examples: *dedazo*** ("big finger", Mexico — the outgoing PRI president secretly picks his successor) · ***amakudari*** ("descent from heaven", Japan — retired bureaucrats get corporate jobs) · **clientelism** (Peronist Argentina). *Not* undemocratic: the **folkways of the US Senate** (Matthews 1959 — apprenticeship, courtesy, reciprocity, specialisation); pre-Erdoğan Turkish university-rector elections.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky bits from Lecture 6 (institutions & institutionalisms).

Quotable

- The framing line: "*political science today is confronted with not one but three 'new institutionalisms.'*"
- **SI's best point** (why we're not just calculators): "*anyone who has waited at a traffic light when no one else was around*" has to admit institutions work non-instrumentally too.
- **RCI's key logical error** (Hall & Taylor): "*one cannot safely deduce origins from consequences*" — because unintended consequences are everywhere.
- SI critique in three words: "*action without agents.*"
- **Reepalu (Sweden)**: "*We'd be in a somewhat easier situation if much of what we're proposing had been introduced some twenty years ago*" — path dependence, out loud.
- **Cuomo (US)**: "*We will save charter schools!*"

Memorable

- The three schools "**developed quite independently of each other**," each "assiduously burnishing its own paradigm" — a paper about theories that ignored each other.
- **Germany**: ~500,000 start firm-based apprenticeships each year — about the same as start university.
- **New Orleans** after Katrina: ~95% of children in charter schools — the highest of any US city.
- **Bill Gates** was ranked the **single most influential individual in US education policy** — **ahead of the Secretary of Education** (who, at the time, was herself a venture philanthropist).
- **Institution ≠ organization**: the Social Democratic *Party* is the organization; the rules and unwritten norms governing it are the *institutions* — the distinction the whole lecture turns on.